

Exposure to Homeless Shelters and Support for Policy Remedies*

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Abstract

American cities have rapidly built new homeless service facilities - shelters and supportive housing - over the last decade in response to rising homelessness. We study how voters react to these facilities once they are built and operational, leveraging a pair of statewide ballot propositions to fund new homeless services in California. We find that voters living closest to newly opened facilities became *more* supportive of spending on homelessness services compared to those living further away. We argue and show using survey data that new shelters increase the salience of homelessness in the minds of voters, driving positive policy feedback. We rule out the effects of positive changes in street conditions, improvements over existing land-uses, and financial self-interest as alternative mechanisms. Our findings suggest that voters can reward policy action and that NIMBY opposition may be more prospective than retrospective.

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1 Introduction

In 2025, over 745,000 people in the United States were homeless, a 30% increase over the number in 2013 (U.S. Department of Housing and Urban Development, 2025). Voters are increasingly concerned with this issue: a plurality of California voters often identify homelessness as the most important problem facing the state and repeatedly vote to support public spending on policy remedies (Public Policy Institute of California, 2025). The most common policy solution is to provide shelters and housing for the homeless. But plans to site homeless facilities often face intense not-in-my-backyard (NIMBY) opposition from the neighborhoods in which they are proposed (Lyon-Callo, 2001; Schively, 2007).¹

Despite this opposition, municipalities across the United States have nonetheless greatly expanded the number of homeless service facilities: since 2013, the number of homeless facilities receiving federal funding increased by 27% and the number of beds increased by 64%. Los Angeles and San Francisco, some of the cities with the most visible and politicized homelessness problems, increased the number of beds by over 100% over this time period (U.S. Department of Housing and Urban Development, 2024b). While many proposed shelters over this time period attracted opposition, blocking or delaying some from being built, we know comparatively little about voters’ *retrospective* response to the large number of facilities that were built.

In this article, we examine whether new facilities erode or build support for future efforts to address homelessness. Specifically, we measure the effects that newly opened homeless service facilities have on neighboring voters’ support for future spending on homeless services. We are able to estimate these costly, revealed behaviors by leveraging a pair of statewide ballot propositions in 2018 and 2024 that authorized billions of dollars of funding for expanded homeless services. We pair precinct electoral returns with original data on new homeless service facilities in California opened during the period between the two ballots, conducting a difference-in-differences design comparing within-precinct change in support for the referenda for precincts immediately proximate to new or expanded homeless facilities compared to those just slightly further away.

¹e.g. “Opponents of S.F. Navigation Center Sue City, State Over Controversial Development” (Brekke, 2019), “Protesters Killed A Plan For A Koreatown Homeless Shelter. But That’s Just The Beginning Of The Story” (LAist, 2019), “Maspeth residents continue protests against homeless shelter, criticizing city for bad policies” (QNS, 2016).

We find that areas immediately nearby new homeless facilities, where residents had day-to-day exposure to new facilities and their inhabitants, grew more favorable toward expanded spending on homelessness than comparable areas slightly further away. Specifically, precincts near (100-300 meters) new or expanded homeless facilities show increased vote shares for the post-treatment ballot proposition of around 2 percentage points, and this effect decays with increasing distance from the new facility (400-800 meters). This effect size constitutes a substantial electoral shift, particularly considering that the final vote share for the second ballot proposition was decided by just 0.36 percentage points. We bolster the identifying assumption of parallel trends with alternative specifications that account for potential differences between treated and control precincts and a placebo test using existing pre-treatment shelters. Moreover, we demonstrate that this effect cannot be explained by movers and also show that our results hold under a natural experiment of commercial hotel conversions which bypassed typical review procedures during the COVID-19 pandemic.

We then turn to explaining the mechanism underpinning voters' positive reactions to new, nearby homeless service facilities. We argue that nearby facilities raised voters' support primarily by increasing issue salience. Typically, spatial shocks raise the salience of either the problem (e.g. extreme weather shocks or mass shootings) or the policy solution (e.g. green energy facilities). But with homeless facilities, voters who live nearby are exposed to *both*. These facilities increase casual exposure to homeless people themselves, as well as to the policy intervention in the form of the physical facility, raising the salience of both homelessness as an issue *and* shelter and housing construction as a policy solution. We test this theory of salience-driven support using Public Policy Institute of California (PPIC) public opinion data collected during the lead-up to the 2024 ballot measure authorizing additional spending on homelessness. First, we show that residents near new facilities report higher awareness of, and interactions with, homeless people. We then show that residents living in affected neighborhoods are more likely to report homelessness as their top issue. Finally we show that this heightened salience strongly predicts higher individual-level support for the ballot propositions. These findings suggest that the policy intervention makes homelessness more salient to the voters most directly exposed, bringing to the “top of the head” prior *positive* attitudes about homeless people and pro-shelter-and-housing policy beliefs.

We rule out several alternative mechanisms. If new facilities generated positive localized externalities, such as decreasing nearby street homelessness and crime, voters may engage in performance-based retrospection and vote for future spending. However, we find no evidence that new facilities decreased street encampments, 311 and 911 calls, and police stops in areas around new facilities; if anything, they slightly increased the volume of some reports. Alternatively, new facilities may improve neighborhood conditions if they replace existing ‘locally unwanted land-uses’ (e.g. vacant or dilapidated lots or industrial sites) (Hankinson et al., 2026). We do not find larger effects for shelters replacing such land uses. Finally, new facilities may cause downstream changes to local property values or rents, activating self-interest among property owners. However, we find no evidence of diverging vote effects by homeownership rates, suggesting financial self-interest does not drive the effects.

Our findings suggest that prospective ‘not-in-my-backyard’ (NIMBY) opposition over controversial siting decisions does not necessarily translate into retrospective backlash by voters once these facilities are built. Instead, in the case of homeless shelters, visible policy change raises issue salience, activating prior positive attitudes, and thereby increasing support for additional policy intervention. Public opinion therefore may not be the primary constraining factor in addressing the homeless crisis, suggesting that local fiscal concerns and the continued housing shortage in many metro areas of the country drive the persistence of homelessness in the United States.

2 Issue salience and political responses to spatial policies

Physical infrastructure needed to solve pressing policy challenges such as housing affordability, climate change, or homelessness is often opposed by the communities where it will be sited (Schively, 2007). This NIMBY opposition generally stems from four sources: first, voters may find new physical infrastructure, such as tall buildings or large wind turbines, aesthetically unappealing (Larsen & Nyholt, 2024; Pietrzak & Mendelberg, 2025; Susskind et al., 2022). Second, symbolic or affective attitudes about who is building the project (Broockman et al., 2025; Monkkonen & Manville, 2019), or residing in it (Mendelberg et al., n.d.; Tighe, 2012; Sahn, 2025b), may extend to the proposal itself. Third, voters worry that new residents will strain public services or generate localized negative externalities such as increased traffic (Oates, 1981; Trounstein, 2023). Finally,

residents’ beliefs about how new infrastructure will affect property values or rents may activate financial self-interest (Fischel, 2005; Hankinson, 2018; Marble & Nall, 2021), especially among politically active homeowners (Einstein et al., 2025; Fischel, 2005; Hall & Yoder, 2022; Yoder, 2020).

But *prospective* opposition to new physical infrastructure, however fierce, tells us little about voters’ *retrospective* reactions once facilities are built and operational. Depending on their type, physical structures may lead to voter backlash, as is the case with wind facilities (Stokes, 2016), or generate positive localized reactions once built, such as solar panels or public transit (Alberdi, 2024; de Benedictis-Kessner et al., 2026).

2.1 A theory of salience-driven support

We argue that new physical facilities have the potential to affect nearby voters’ support by raising issue salience. Voters’ attention is finite, and the considerations that are accessible when they evaluate a political choice shape which of their attitudes they bring to bear on it (Iyengar & Kinder, 1987; Zaller, 1992; Bélanger & Meguid, 2008). Most sources of salience — e.g. campaigns, media coverage — are diffuse and transient in contrast to proximity to a physical facility. New features in the built environment deliver repeated, incidental exposure to a political problem or policy response. For example, natural disasters raise the salience of climate change (Hazlett & Mildemberger, 2020), neighborhood demographics that of immigration (Hopkins, 2010), and new transit projects make salient congestion and traffic (de Benedictis-Kessner et al., 2026).

Raising issue salience increases the weight voters place on their preexisting attitudes when evaluating related political choices. This distinguishes the effects of increased salience from changes in underlying affect towards the homeless or responses to material self-interest. Not only is attitudinal change more difficult, but such accounts predict attitudes of those exposed to a policy intervention move in the same direction, regardless of their priors (Coppock, 2023). Changing salience instead amplifies existing dispositions by making the considerations undergirding policy attitudes more available (Zaller, 1992). Consequently, a change in salience can produce positive effects among sympathetic voters and negative effects among hostile ones. Existing studies of the effects of physical proximity bear this prediction out. For example, wildfire exposure increases

pro-environment voting in Democratic areas but not Republican ones (Hazlett & Mildemberger, 2020) and transit stations deliver gains among supportive urbanites (de Benedictis-Kessner et al., 2026).

This theory of salience-driven support predicts an alternative sequence of policy feedback. The mechanism undergirding the classic accounts of policy feedback often relies on the policy conferring resources to beneficiaries or by allowing voters to trace outcomes to the politicians responsible (Pierson, 1993; Campbell, 2012; Mettler & Soss, 2004). For local public goods whose access is limited by physical proximity, (e.g. public parks, district schools, transit stations), policy feedback can also occur by creating a new constituency who support the continued funding and maintenance of facilities that they now use. Similarly, proximity can also build support among the “policy adjacent:” nearby residents who will never use the facility directly but experience its second-order effects (e.g. increases in property values or decreased traffic) (Hankinson et al., 2026; Holland, 2023). For this account of policy feedback to operate, the policy must have demonstrable effects among direct beneficiaries or the policy adjacent. An alternate account emphasizes issue ownership and traceability: politicians credit claim and advertise a policy to accrue political benefits (Mayhew, 1974). In these accounts, feedback runs through attribution: it is strongest when benefits are traceable to government action, allowing voters to reward the actors responsible, and weakens as traceability fades (Hamel, 2024).

We argue a policy can still produce policy feedback even if it does not change the material conditions among beneficiaries or nearby residents, is not properly credited, nor alters beliefs in state capacity. Rather, voters need only to be aware of a policy and carry the considerations made salient into the voting booth. We argue this mechanism is particularly relevant for physical infrastructure and local public goods for two reasons. First, physical proximity can serve as a daily reminder of policy intervention, increasing issue salience and activating preexisting attitudes about the policy or, especially in the case of housing or homeless services, about the people inhabiting or using the public good or infrastructure. Second, in the limited-information environment of local politics and local public goods provision, the small boost in salience from proximity can have large effects, since voters have few other considerations on which to draw.

2.2 The case of homeless service facilities

Homeless service facilities are a distinctive case which which to test our theory of salience-driven policy feedback on several dimensions. First, the direct beneficiaries of these facilities are unlikely to drive an electoral response: the unhoused share of the population is a negligible portion of the electorate (Brown & Zoorob, 2020). Whatever electoral reaction facilities produce must come almost entirely from nearby residents who do not use the facilities themselves. Second, homeless services facilities collapse the two channels of salience into a single structure: voters who live nearby are exposed to both homeless people themselves and to the facility. That is, they are exposed to both the problem (homelessness) and the policy solution (homeless service facilities). This can make salient both affective attitudes about homeless people and considerations about the effects of the facilities on local conditions, including self-interested considerations.

With respect to attitudes about the homeless, the public often holds positive and negative attitudes in tension. On one hand, the homeless are subject to negative stereotypes (Cuddy et al., 2008), above and beyond those of other stereotyped groups like the poor or racial minorities. Repeated exposure to stereotyped groups can reinforce stereotypes (Smith et al., 2006) or lead people to abandon empathy altogether, as sustained compassion is cognitively costly (Cameron et al., 2016). For many, seeing homeless people arouses disgust and the desire for physical distance and separation (Clifford & Piston, 2017). Many associate the homeless with crime and disorder, as evidenced by prevalence of such concerns surrounding proposed shelters (Eisenberg, 2017; Vitale, 2008).

On the other hand, large majorities of the public concurrently hold a set of positive attitudes towards homeless people, namely sympathy and a belief in structural causes (as opposed to personal failure) underpinning homelessness (Lee et al., 2004; Tsai et al., 2019; Henig, 1994). Exposure to homeless individuals is theorized to increase this sympathy, leading to more support for government intervention (Link & Cullen, 1986; Lee et al., 2004; Laniyonu & Byerly, 2021). Majorities even express support for homeless facilities *in their backyards* (Link et al., 1995), backed up by costly behavior such as donating to homeless charities (Gross & Wronski, 2021). Finally, negative affect appears primarily to predict support for punitive policies (e.g. criminalizing street homelessness), but not for spending: disgust has no effect on support for spending shelters or

supportive housing (Clifford & Piston, 2017). This suggests that activation of preexisting, *positive* attitudes may be particularly relevant in our case, as voters are being asked to spend more on shelters and housing.

An alternate account is that nearby voters may respond not to homeless people, but to the localized externalities of facilities on their neighborhoods. Prior evidence suggests the valence of these externalities differ by facility type. Housing-based facilities (e.g. permanent supportive housing) generate few negative externalities: often increasing nearby property values (Galster et al., 2004; Armstrong et al., 2008), not increasing localized crime (Galster et al., 2002), and lowering their residents’ likelihood of committing a crime after placement (Ellsworth, 2022). Shelter-based facilities (e.g. emergency shelters), on the other hand, produce mixed but generally negative externalities: new shelters can decrease nearby property values (Sitti et al., 2025; Owusu-Ansah, 2019), and increase some categories of crime (Faraji et al., 2018) or 911 calls (Brown & Zoorob, 2022). But both types of facilities may reduce the prevalence of nearby street homelessness (Cohen, 2019), which may be particularly consequential as perceptions of disorder may matter more than actual crime for behavior (Michener, 2013). Therefore, if new facilities primarily activate material or self-interested considerations, we should expect reactions to be polarized both by facility type and homeownership, as homeowners whose wealth is tied to neighborhood conditions are theorized to react differently than renters (Fischel, 2005; Hankinson et al., 2026).

We argue these considerations are top of mind when voters are asked to approve more funding for facilities at the ballot box. Local conditions acquire political weight when a broader campaign supplies issue frames (Hopkins, 2010), and the ballot propositions we study supply that frame, connecting neighborhood exposure to a concrete policy choice. Depending either on the preexisting attitudes of residents living near, or the tangible localized effects of new facilities, the direction of policy feedback may diverge. Given the heterogeneity of findings in the literature, we view the direction of policy feedback as largely an empirical question.

3 Data and Measurement

3.1 Measuring support: statewide ballot propositions

To test the effect of new homeless service facilities, we compare support for two ballot propositions asking California voters to authorize bonds to finance homeless services. The first proposition, Proposition 2, was on the ballot in the November 2018 general election; the second proposition, Proposition 1, was on the ballot in the March 2024 primary election.² Coverage of the propositions was largely focused on homelessness, with headlines such as “Homelessness is on the California ballot this March” (Kendall, 2024). Governor Gavin Newsom, who proposed the 2024 Proposition, explicitly linked it to homelessness, calling a yes vote a way to “prioritize getting people off the streets, out of tents, and into treatment” (Yes on Prop 1 – Governor Newsom’s Ballot Measure Committee, 2023).

Table 1: Ballot Propositions in Main Analysis

Proposition 2 (November 2018)

Passed 63–37

Authorizes Bonds to Fund Existing Housing Program for Individuals With Mental Illness. Legislative Statute.

Proposition 2 authorizes the state to sell up to \$2 billion in bonds to fund the No Place Like Home program, which builds and rehabilitates housing for individuals experiencing homelessness, or at risk of homelessness, who have mental illness. The measure permits the state to use up to \$140 million annually from existing county mental-health funds to repay these bonds over roughly thirty years.

Proposition 1 (March 2024)

Passed 50–50

Bonds for Mental Health Treatment Facilities

Proposition 1 authorizes \$6.4 billion in new bonds to build more facilities for mental-health care and drug or alcohol treatment and more housing for people experiencing homelessness, or at risk of it, who have behavioral-health or substance-use challenges. It modifies California’s Mental Health Services Act—renaming it the Behavioral Health Services Act—shifting roughly \$140 million annually in tax revenue from counties to the state and requiring counties to dedicate more funding to housing and support services. About \$4.4 billion of the bond proceeds would support treatment facilities and \$2 billion would fund housing, with over half of the housing funds reserved for veterans.

We measure the vote share for both propositions at the precinct level, harmonizing all

²Appendix Table A1, lists features of these and other state and local ballot propositions related to homelessness in the 2010s and 2020s. While these propositions funded more than just homeless services, emphasizing behavioral and mental health services, most people associate drug addiction and mental illness with homelessness. For example, a 2023 PPIC poll found that 80% of Californians attribute homelessness to drug addiction and 66% attribute it to a lack of mental health services.

vote returns to the boundaries of the 2024 precincts from precinct shapefiles for both the 2018 and 2024 elections (McCue, 2011). We overlay the 2018 precinct shapefiles with the 2024 precinct shapefiles, producing a set of intersection polygons representing every area of overlap between a 2018 and a 2024 precinct. We then use individual-level voter registration data from L2 to geocode each voter who cast a ballot in the 2018 election into these intersection polygons. This allows us to count the number of 2018 voters residing in each intersection polygon. We use these voter counts to apportion 2018 precinct-level vote shares to 2024 precinct geographies. For each intersection polygon, we assign the vote count observed in the corresponding 2018 precinct multiplied by the share of that precinct’s 2018 voters falling within the intersection. We then aggregate across all intersection polygons within each 2024 precinct to produce an estimate of 2018 vote share in 2024 precinct boundaries. The resulting dataset is a panel of 2024 precincts, each with observed 2024 vote share and reconstructed 2018 vote share.

3.2 Measuring treatment: new homeless service facilities

We collect data on new or expanded homeless services facilities that opened between the two ballot propositions from two sources. The first is the U.S. Department of Housing and Urban Development’s (HUD) Housing Inventory Count (HIC). HIC provides addresses for nearly all homeless service facilities that participate in the federal Homeless Management Information System (HMIS), required as a condition for receiving federal money from HUD. The second source is the California Homeless Data Integration System (HDIS), obtained via request from the California Interagency Council on Homelessness (CalICH). This data includes housing-based facilities funded solely by state-and-local initiatives and not included in the HUD data.

We subset to single-site ‘project-based’ facilities, since scattered site and voucher-based programs do not produce the spatially concentrated exposure we theorize will change voters’ support.³ Within this subset, there are two main types of facilities. First, shelter-based facilities, which include emergency shelters (short-term beds, often in congregate facilities, with minimal services) and safe havens (drop-in facilities that serve hard-to-reach populations, often with severe mental illness). Second, housing-based facilities, which include supportive housing projects

³The facilities we select make up the majority of facilities. For reference, in 2023, 81% of shelter-based and 64% of housing-based facilities were classified as single-site.

(permanent apartments with no limits on length of stay with dedicated on-site social services) and transitional housing (short-term beds in buildings often configured as apartments that charge affordable rents).

We de-duplicate the HUD and Cal ICH datasets at the address level (See Appendix B.1 for details) and identify new projects, which are those which opened between November 2018 and March 2024.⁴ New projects can encompass both new sites as well as expanded services at existing sites.⁵ Our final dataset contains 1,579 new facilities, representing over 97,000 new beds. Table 2 breaks down our new facilities by type, which are roughly equally split between shelter and housing-based facilities.

Table 2: Homeless service facilities opened in California, November 2018–March 2024

Category	Program Type	New Sites	New Beds	% of Total Beds
Shelter-Based	Emergency Shelters	654	52,424	54%
	Safe Havens	7	498	1%
Housing-Based	Permanent Supportive Housing	567	29,424	30%
	Transitional Housing	244	7,151	7%
	Other Permanent Housing	89	5,088	5%
Mixed-Program Sites	Multiple facility types	18	2,649	3%
Total		1,579	97,234	100%

4 Research Design: difference-in-differences

To identify the effect of new homeless services facilities on support for additional spending on said facilities, we estimate a differences-in-differences model comparing changes in vote share and turnout between two ballot propositions. We compare precincts located close to new homeless shelter sites to those located slightly further away, which plausibly could have received the new facilities. Within-neighborhood decisions in siting are more likely to be driven by idiosyncratic factors, such as the availability of development sites (for new construction) or vacant properties (for conversions) than across-neighborhood political considerations (Reid et al., 2022; California State

⁴To allow for some imprecision in opening dates we use cutoffs of November 1st 2018 and April 1st, 2024, restricting the sample to shelters listed as opened within those dates. See Appendix Table A3 for a count of all facilities dropped from the analysis sample. Appendix Figure A1 shows results are similar from the sample using exact election dates to define the sample.

⁵Our sample includes 144 expanded facilities. Appendix Figure A2 demonstrates our results are consistent on the sample of facilities at completely new sites.

Legislature, 2020; Fiore et al., 2024; California Senate Committee on Housing, 2024). By comparing changes in support for the ballot propositions within the same small geographic area, we are able to isolate the effect of homeless facility siting on changes in homelessness policy support.

We classify precincts as being treated if the centroid of the precinct is within a certain radius of a new shelter. We calculate the geodesic distance in meters from each precinct’s centroid to the closest new homeless service facility that appears between 2018 and 2024. To illustrate our assignment strategy, we consider a version where all precincts within 300 meters of a new site are considered as treated. At this distance, we treat all precincts between 300 meters and 650 meters as being in the “control” group while all other precincts beyond this distance are excluded from the estimation. When presenting our differences-in-differences estimates we report results at increasing distance cutoffs from 100m to 800m, mirroring the approach of studies such as Enos (2016) or Brown & Zoorob (2022). We do so for two reasons. First, increasing cutoffs test whether effects are largest for areas closest to new shelters, as these would be the most affected and potentially have the largest exposure to the new impacts of the policy. This is informed by prior literature that political behavior in response to controversial land-uses is typically isolated to extremely small distances (Hankinson, 2018; Sahn, 2025a). Second, we increase cutoffs in recognition that the treatment cutoff will always be somewhat arbitrary. Figure 1 visually demonstrates how these distance cutoffs change the treatment assignment.

To formalize our estimation, let y_{it} be the proportion of precinct i that voted in support of the homeless shelter referendum in time t . Let α_i be the precinct fixed effect, and $I(t = 2024)$ an indicator variable taking a value of 1 if the observation is for the 2024 election, 0 otherwise. $I(D_i < d^*)$ is an indicator variable taking a value of 1 if the centroid of precinct i is less than d^* meters from a new (by 2024) shelter. We include precinct and year fixed effects, and standard errors are clustered at the shelter level to account for correlation among treated and control precincts whose treatment status is defined relative to the same facility (Abadie et al., 2023).⁶ We estimate the following linear model:

⁶Because residual correlation could also operate over broader geography, in Table A15 in the Appendix we demonstrate the robustness of our results to alternative standard error estimation strategies: clustering at a higher geographic level (county) and Conley spatial standard errors using triangular kernels of 5 and 10 kilometers (Conley, 1999).

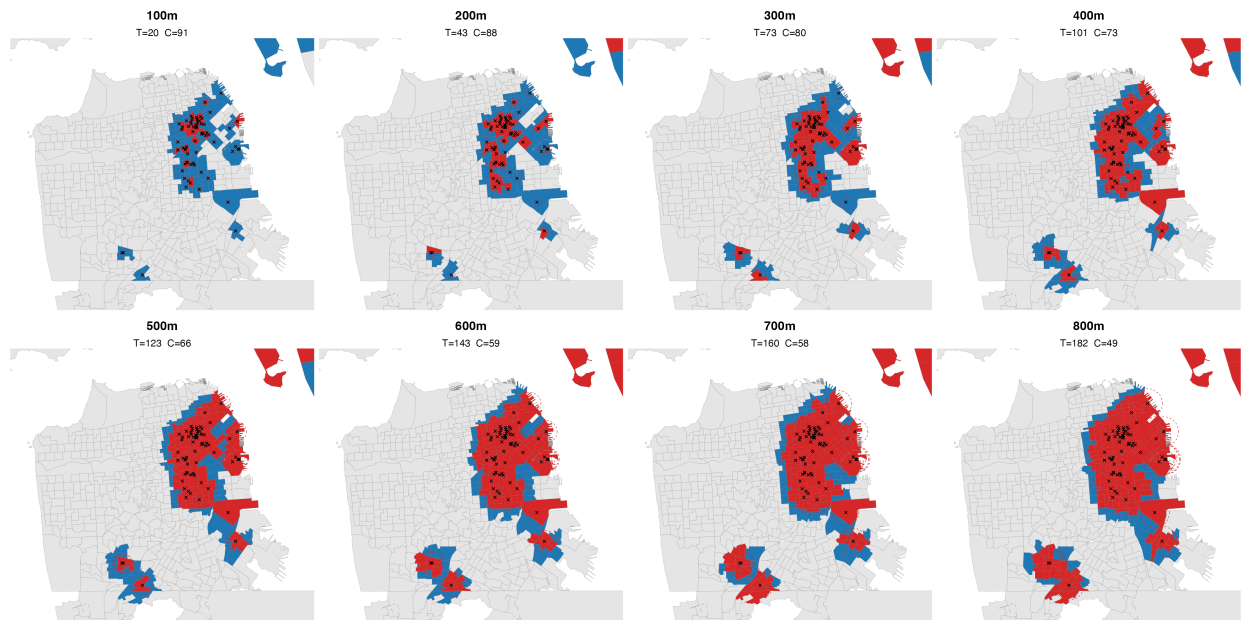


Figure 1: **Treatment and control assignment by distance cutoff, San Francisco:** map shows treated precincts in red, control precincts in blue. New homeless services facilities represented by black x and radius in dotted red circle. Control increments add 350 meters to the treatment increment.

$$y_{it} = \alpha_i + \beta I(t = 2024) + \theta I(t = 2024) \times I(D_i < d^*) + \epsilon_s \quad (1)$$

Our quantity of interest is θ , which represents the difference-in-differences estimator comparing changes in policy support before and after new shelters appear between areas more/less proximate to the new shelter sites.

The identification assumption in this design requires parallel trends across treated and control precincts. That is, absent a new shelter appearing, treated precincts would have trended similar to control precincts in their support for homeless shelter spending. We assess the validity of this assumption in the Validity Section, but the challenges of our case motivate several design choices. The siting of new homeless shelters is likely correlated, directly and indirectly, with political preferences. Shelters are built based on need – where homeless populations are – and based on where land use and infrastructure allows – i.e. what kinds of buildings can be converted to a shelter, where vacant land is for a new shelter to be built, and where zoning regulations allow. Often, the siting of such shelters allows for citizen input, and in some cases potential sites are met with opposition from residents. These concerns motivate our within-neighborhood design, which helps to mitigate selection resulting from the processes that lead to siting a shelter within a shared neighborhood or local area, and thus any remaining confounding is about differences between precincts within those smaller areas. In Appendix Tables A8-A10 we present balance tables across distance cutoffs, finding some level differences between treated and control precincts.

To better account for potential parallel trend violations in our design, we supplement the naive difference-in-differences estimation above with specifications using inverse propensity weighting (IPW) to reconstruct our counterfactual comparison such that control precincts are reweighted toward treated precincts based on observable baseline covariates (Abadie, 2005).⁷ We construct inverse propensity weights using a logit model predicting treatment status as a function of 2018 precinct levels of percent White, log population, log population density, homeownership rate, log

⁷Standard errors for this model are clustered at the facility level. Since conventional standard errors in weighted regression condition on estimated propensity weights, we also follow recommended practice and compute bootstrapped shelter-cluster standard errors (Reifeis & Hudgens, 2022). Bootstrap and analytic standard errors are nearly identical across cutoffs (Appendix Table A15), so we report analytic clustered standard errors for consistency across specifications.

median home value, log median household income, percent with a college degree, number of pre-existing shelters, and number of pre-existing beds. In Appendix Section D.6, we present evidence of the improvement of this estimation yields over naive difference-in-differences. We present these estimates side-by-side in our main results but use the IPW specification as our preferred result.⁸

5 Results

5.1 Descriptive Patterns

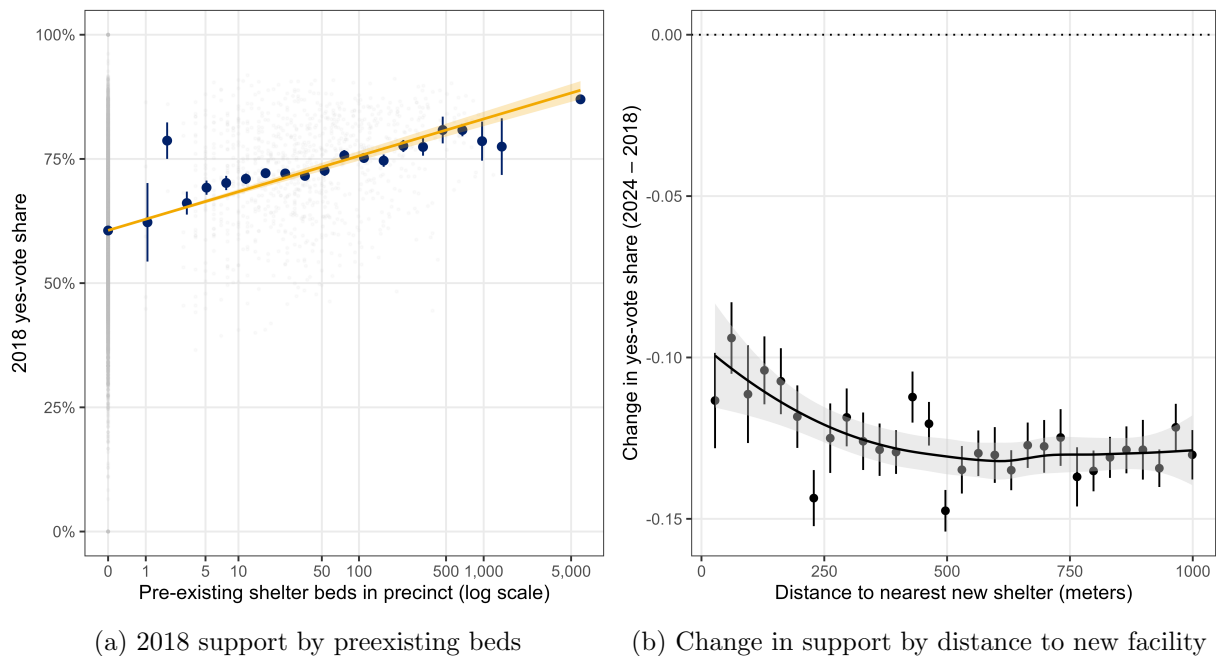


Figure 2: **Voters in areas with pre-existing and newly opened shelters are more likely to support homeless spending measures:** left panel plots 2018 ballot proposition support against pre-existing facility exposure at the precinct level. The right panel shows within-precinct change in vote share from 2018 to 2024 plotted against the distance from the precinct centroid to the nearest new facility.

We first show descriptive patterns of proposition support and distance to homeless services facilities. The left panel of Figure 2 shows the relationship between the preexisting number of beds in facilities in a precinct in 2018 and support for Proposition 2. Voters in areas with higher concentrations of homeless service facilities are themselves the most likely to support spending to

⁸In Appendix Table A11, we present additional alternative estimators including a double robust difference-in-differences specification following Sant’Anna & Zhao (2020) and specifications adding 2018 baseline proposition support and the precinct’s 2014–2018 change in support for homeless spending to the propensity weighting model.

expand the scope of these facilities. The right panel shows that shifts in support between 2018 and 2024 are similarly correlated with proximity to new shelters. While the ‘yes’ vote share drops, on average, 13 percentage points between 2018 and 2024, the decline is smaller near new facilities, with a decreasing relationship between distance and change in vote share until about 400 meters, at which point the relationship flattens.⁹ Critically, baseline shifts in ‘yes’ vote shares reflect broader temporal electoral trends, further motivating our within-neighborhood differences-in-differences design.

5.2 Difference-in-Differences Results

We next turn to the model-based estimate of the effect of new homeless facility proximity on support for expanded funding. Figure 3 plots the difference-in-differences estimates from our main specification across increasing distances at which the treated group is defined, from 100 to 800 meters.¹⁰ We show two versions of the estimate, a naive difference-in-difference specification and a weighted specification accounting for the propensity for a precinct to be exposed to a new shelter. When comparing precincts within 100 meters of a new shelter to precincts between 100 and 450 meters away, we find that more proximate precincts increased their support for funding homeless services by approximately 2 percentage points (or a 4% increase over average support for the proposition).¹¹ Comparing precincts less than 200 meters to those between 200 and 550 meters, the naive difference-in-differences estimate is 2.0 percentage points, and at 300 meters, the effect is 1.4 percentage points.¹² Effects remain statistically significant through 500 meters and attenuate with distance. We see similar effect sizes for the IPW estimates, which adhere closely to our naive estimates and mirror the descriptive relationship. For areas near new homeless facilities, the new facility produces a positive effect on support for additional investment in homelessness, and the

⁹Some of this overall decline may be due to different compositions of the 2018 general versus 2024 primary electorate. In Appendix Section D.13, we present sensitivity analyses showing our results are unlikely to be driven by such differences.

¹⁰Our main result is robust to three alternative treatment specification: a continuous-exposure design, a fixed-sample design that holds the sample of non-excluded precincts fixed while varying the threshold between treatment and control, and alternative control-band constructions that matched treated units on area and number of precincts (See Appendix Section D.3). We also show that our main results are robust to alternative control distance and bandwidth specifications.

¹¹In Appendix Figure A17 we present the effects on individual-level turnout, and find similarly localized positive effects, albeit at smaller in magnitude.

¹²In Appendix Figure A6 we present results measuring the effect of the total number of new shelters and new beds within each distance cutoff, finding a qualitatively similar effects.

effect is largest for precincts closest to the new facilities.¹³

These effect sizes are substantively meaningful when set against the overall decline in support. The average precinct in our sample decreased support for the 2024 referendum (relative to 2018) by approximately 13 percentage points. An approximate 2 percentage point effect at 200 meters thus offsets roughly 15% of this average decline. The 2024 referendum was decided by less than one percentage point, so localized shifts of this magnitude had a meaningful impact on the final outcome.

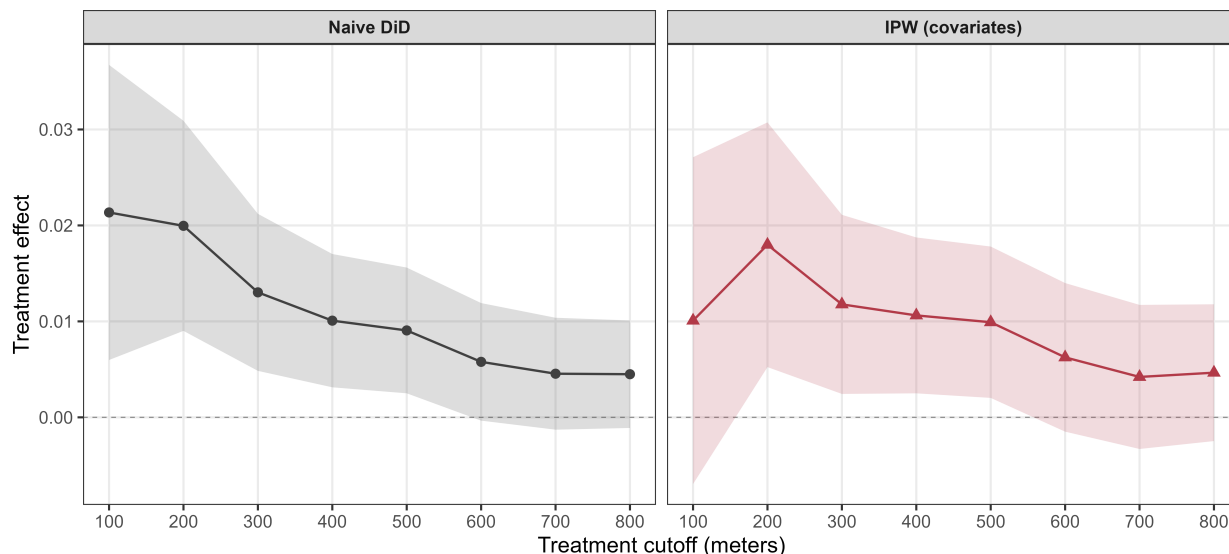


Figure 3: **Voters in precincts nearby new facilities are more supportive of future homelessness spending:** Points plot difference-in-differences coefficients from the naive DiD (left) and IPW specifications (right), from separate estimation at increasing distance cutoffs (x-axis). The shaded area represents 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered at the facility level.

5.3 Assessing inferential concerns

5.3.1 Parallel Trends

The identifying assumption of our design is that treated and control precincts would have exhibited near identical trends in the ‘yes’ vote, if not for the new homeless service facilities.¹⁴

We evaluate pretreatment trends using a previous statewide measure ballot measure from 2014,

¹³In Appendix Section E.7, we conceptually replicate this analysis using PPIC survey data, showing that survey respondents in ZIP Codes that receive new shelters are more likely to report supporting the 2024 ballot referendum.

¹⁴In the Appendix, we present analyses demonstrating robustness to specifications allowing for time trends to vary by baseline covariates (Table A12) or by spatial confounders (Table A13), and robustness to potential spillovers between treated and control precincts (Table A14).

Proposition 41.¹⁵ We also estimate pre-trends for Los Angeles using Measure HHH, a city proposition from November 2016 and Measure H, a county proposition from March 2017. Both funded homeless service facility construction. We also evaluate pretreatment trends on two other electoral outcomes: Congressional Democratic vote share and overall turnout in the 2014, 2016, and 2018 cycles.

Figure 4 presents the difference in pre-trends between treated and control units at each radius from our IPW specification.¹⁶ For each outcome, we show the coefficient on the interaction between the pre-2018 trend and an indicator for treatment versus control units. We see null placebo estimates for all distance cutoffs for the statewide veteran homeless bond except 300 meters, which is marginally significant. The 2016 LA county comparison is null at all distance cutoffs, but the 2017 comparison, while null at the closest cutoffs, shows some negative estimates at larger distance cutoffs. The Congressional Democratic vote share pre-trends all are not statistically distinguishable from zero and the precinct turnout results are mostly null except for a negative turnout placebo estimate at 200 meters. Overall, the balance of the pre-trend evidence supports our identifying assumption: it is unlikely that our treatment effects are driven by diverging trends prior to 2018.

As a complementary falsification test, we re-estimate the main specification using proximity to *pre-existing* facilities as a placebo treatment in place of new facility openings. Because these pre-existing facilities were present in both the 2018 and 2024 elections, proximity to one should produce no differential change in referendum support; a non-zero estimate would instead indicate that facility-proximate precincts are on differential trends. At each distance cutoff we exclude precincts that are actually treated by a new (2018-2024) facility from both the placebo-treated and placebo-control groups, so the placebo is not contaminated by the real treatment effect. As Appendix Figure A9 shows, the placebo estimates are small and statistically indistinguishable from zero across all cutoffs, consistent with the parallel-trends evidence above.

Lastly, we re-estimate our effects on a sub-sample of facilities with bypassed normal dis-

¹⁵This proposition was more explicitly focused on housing for homeless veterans, rather than the more general Propositions 2 and 1. See Appendix Table A1 for a information on additional ballot measures.

¹⁶Raw pre-trends are shown in Appendix Figure A7. Pre-trend placebo tests from naive difference-in-differences are shown in Appendix Figure A10. We see near zero pre-trends in the naive estimation for all but the statewide homeless veteran ballot measure. This potential pre-trend violation from the naive estimator motivates our use of IPW.

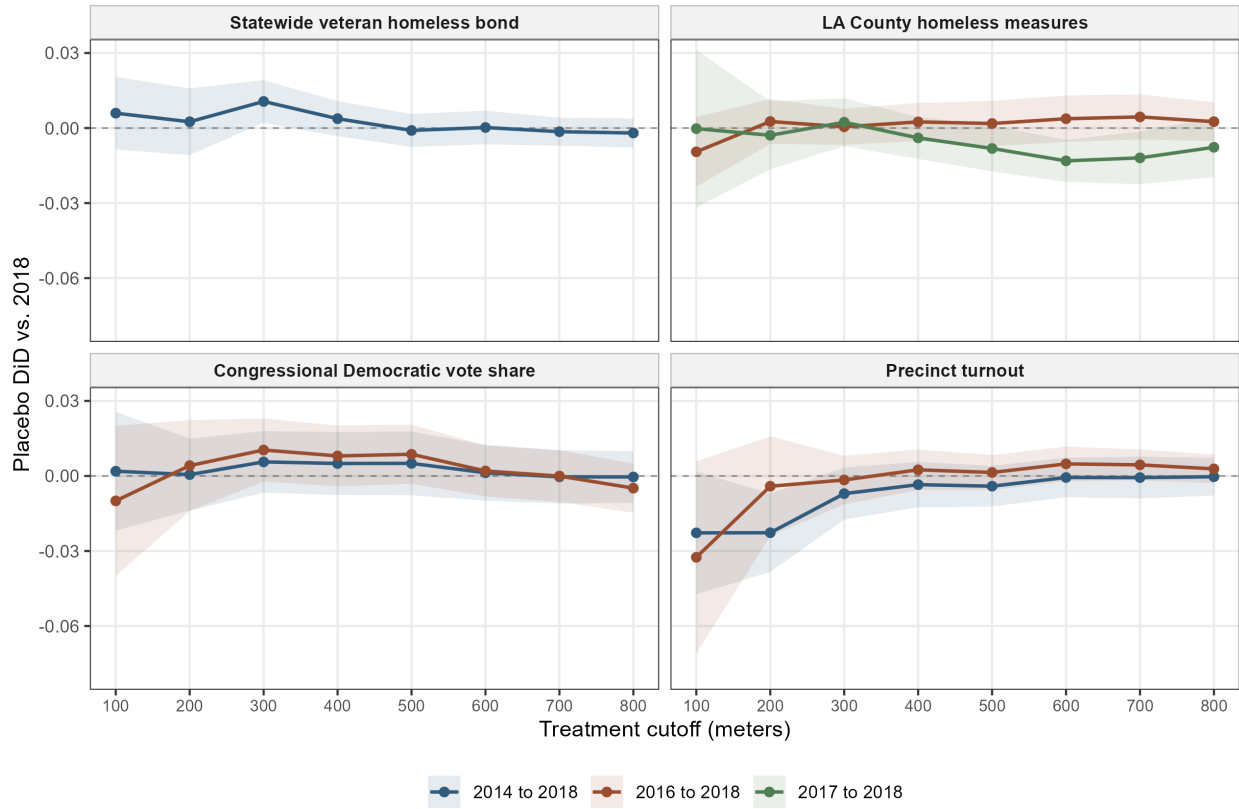


Figure 4: **Pre-trends on homeless spending support, Congressional vote, and turnout:** each panel plots the IPW placebo DiD coefficient comparing the change in outcome from the pre-period year to 2018 as a function of exposure to a new facility within the distance cutoff between 2018 and 2024. The shaded ribbon is the 95% confidence interval based on standard errors clustered at the facility level. Panels: (A) Statewide Veteran Homeless Bond (2014 Proposition 41 and 2018 Proposition 2); (B) LA County homeless measures (2016 Measure HHH, 2017 Measure H); (C) Congressional Democratic vote share (2014, 2016); (D) precinct turnout (2014, 2016).

cretionary review procedures. This tests if our results hold where it is less likely that environmental review or public hearings enabled hyper-local discretionary changes in facility siting within neighborhoods, such as to avoid blocks where politicians anticipate backlash or support. During the COVID-19 pandemic, California acquired hotels and motels for rapid conversion to permanent housing under Project Homekey. Homekey exempted qualifying acquisitions from the California Environmental Quality Act and authorized by-right conversion of hotel and motel units to residential use without triggering discretionary zoning reviews. These two procedural steps together constitute an important share of conventional facility siting timelines and introduce opportunities for community feedback that may encourage local decision-makers to change their siting decisions. A federally imposed December 2020 expenditure deadline further constrained site selection: local governments had to identify properties for which they could reach preliminary agreements with willing sellers before submitting applications, limiting the feasible choice set to immediately available, distressed-market hotel properties irrespective of neighborhood characteristics (Reid et al., 2022).

We restrict the main differences-in-differences specification to facilities identified as Homekey conversions (18.5% of new facilities in our sample), but, different to our main specifications, we define control precincts as those within the distance cutoff of an eligible hotel that was not converted into a homeless facility. We generally find effect estimates across distance cutoffs consistent with our full sample effects (Appendix Figure A8). While estimates are noisier than our main effects due to the limited sample size, we are reassured that the effects are directionally consistent and similar in magnitude, lessening concerns that hyper-local endogenous shelter siting decisions are driving our main effects.

5.3.2 Residential Sorting

Another potential concern with our results is that the estimate could partly reflect differences in movers into-or-out of treated precincts, rather than changes among a stable electorate. For instance, one could imagine that new homeless services facilities lead nearby residents who dislike these facilities or have anti-homeless attitudes to move away. If they are replaced by new residents with pro-homeless spending attitudes, this would mechanically increase the pro- share of the

electorate.

Although prior research suggests that sorting explicitly on the grounds of exposure to homelessness is unlikely (Mummolo & Nall, 2017), we address this concern by assessing whether differences in in- and out-migration are large enough to plausibly account for our vote share results. For residential sorting to explain a substantial share of the result, two things must be true. First, treated precincts must exhibit meaningful differences in turnover-related composition relative to nearby controls. Second, those differences must be strongly correlated with propensity to vote yes or no on the ballot propositions.

We examine these in turn. First, using our L2 linked voter sample, we calculate the number of “stayers:” voters present in the same precinct in the 2018 and 2024 elections, and the number of “movers” both in and out of precincts. At each distance cutoff, we then compare these turnover measures between treated precincts and nearby controls by estimating a cross-sectional regression using the same IPW adjustment as our main specification. As shown in Appendix Figure A13, we find no statistically significant difference in in migration between treated and control precincts. Out-migration estimates at the closest distances are null, although we do see statistically-significant coefficients at the 300, 600, 700, and 800 meter distance cutoffs. Even further, we find that the differences in 2018-2024 residential turnover are not statistically distinguishable from pre-2018 migration levels across treated and control precincts (Appendix Table A14). Therefore, it is not the case that new shelters induced higher residential turnover, thus making it unlikely that any turnover reflects large differences in preferences for homelessness spending.

As an additional check, we conduct a sensitivity analysis under different realistic scenarios wherein leavers and stayers have different preferences about the ballot propositions (we benchmark the gap between leaver and stayer support at both half a standard deviation and one standard deviation in 2018 yes vote share across treated precincts, but also compute more extreme scenarios. Figure A15 shows the results from this sensitivity analysis for treatment cutoffs at 200 and 300 meters. At 200 meters, the sensitivity analysis suggests that residential mobility could account for approximately 4.7%–9.3% of the estimated vote-share effect. At 300 meters, the corresponding range is 9.3%–18.6%. Therefore, only small pluralities of our effects may be driven by compositional changes in the electorate due to in- and out-migration, but the large majority of our effect is likely

a political behavior response to new shelters opening.¹⁷

A final concern related to residential sorting is that the homeless residents of new facilities themselves are voting for the ballot propositions. Again with the L2 data, we count how many voters are registered at the address of a new facility, finding only 48 registrants at these sites who voted in the 2024 primary (Appendix Table A6). Therefore, the clients of these homeless facilities likely make up only trivial portion of the overall electorate, echoing prior research on the demobilizing effects of housing insecurity (Brown & Zoorob, 2020; Slee & Desmond, 2023).

6 Mechanisms

We now turn to investigating why voters nearby newly opened homeless service facilities were more likely to vote for future provision, testing our theory of salience-driven support against alternative mechanisms.

6.1 Exposure and Issue Salience

A precondition for new facility-induced salience increasing support for homelessness spending is that nearby residents are aware of facilities and/or their inhabitants. We first conduct a manipulation check using individual-level survey data from three polls conducted by PPIC around the 2024 ballot measure that asked respondents about seeing or interacting with homeless people.¹⁸ The first panel of Figure 5 plots the relationship between ZIP-level treatment to new facilities and self-reported exposure to homelessness: respondents in treated ZIPs were 6 percentage points more likely to report seeing homeless people on a weekly basis. This reflects incidental exposure, as respondents are no more or less likely to report being homeless themselves or knowing a close family member who is homeless.

Consistent with increased awareness, we also find evidence that ZIP-level exposure to new homeless facilities is associated with higher issue salience in the second panel of Figure 5. Re-

¹⁷Additional sensitivity analyses that allow in-movers to have different preferences than stayers also can only explain small proportions of the estimate effects (Appendix Figure A16).

¹⁸See Appendix Section E.7 for details about the PPIC data. We conceptually replicate our main findings by measuring the association between new facilities at the ZIP level on a variety of outcomes, controlling for pre-treatment homeless beds, county, and observable individual-level co-variates. Critically, this approach replicates our main treatment effect, with higher support for Prop-1, but not for a variety of placebo policy outcomes (such as support for redistributive or foreign policies).

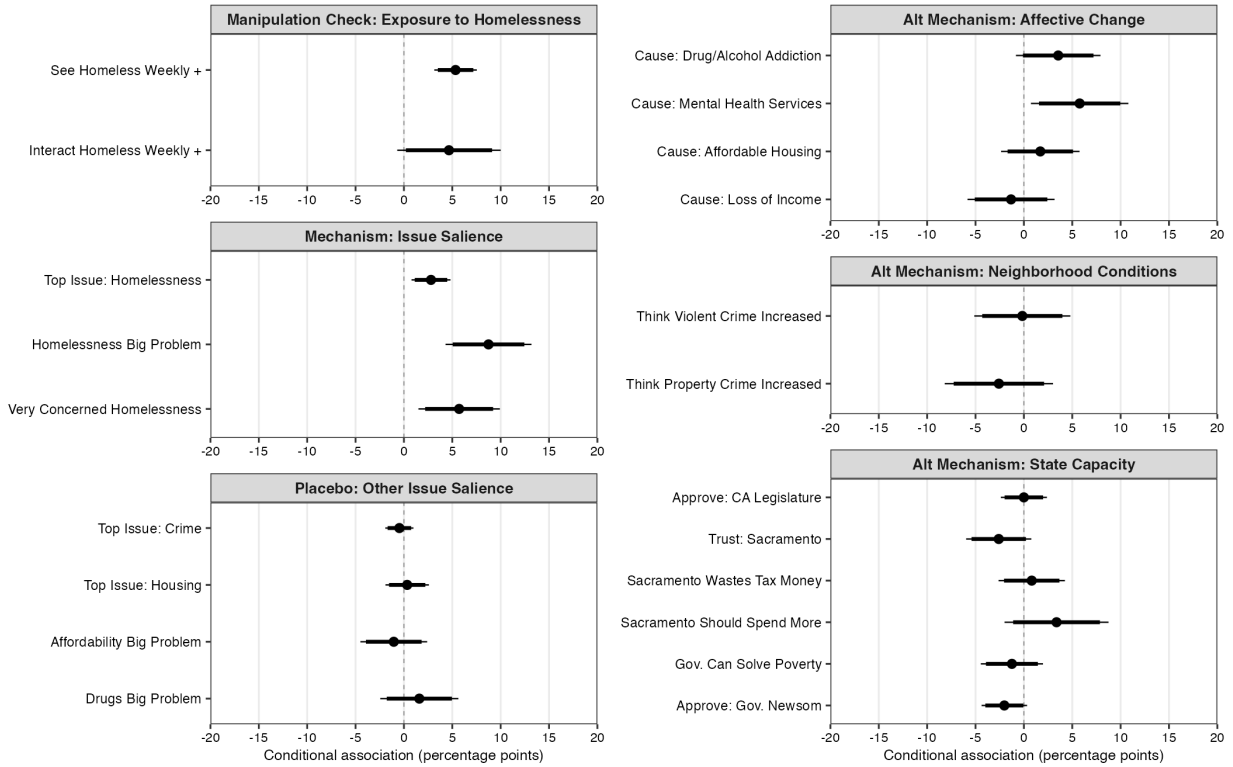


Figure 5: **Survey respondents in ZIP codes with new homeless facilities report higher exposure to homeless people, higher homelessness issue salience, no changes in perceptions of neighborhood conditions, and no changes in beliefs in state capacity.** Plot shows the effect of ZIP Code-level exposure to new facilities on self-reported frequency of seeing or interacting with homeless people (weekly or more), issue salience (top issue facing California) and evaluation of problems, beliefs about causes of homelessness, perceptions of neighborhood conditions, and evaluation of government institutions. OLS models control for homeownership, race, age, income, length of residence, vote likelihood, ideology, education, gender, and ZIP-level pre-2018 homeless beds, as well as survey wave and county fixed effects. Standard errors are clustered at the County-ZIP Code level. Error bars indicate 90 and 95% confidence intervals.

spondents in ZIP Codes with new homeless services facilities are 2 percentage points more likely to say homelessness is the number one issue facing the state. While small in absolute terms, this represents a 15 percent increase over the baseline rate, as respondents are asked to choose from an exhaustive list including other important issue areas such as the economy or immigration. As alternative measures of salience, respondents are 10 percentage points more likely to say homelessness is a “big problem” and 8 percentage points more likely to say they are “very concerned” about the presence of homeless people in their local community. The effect is issue-specific to homelessness: we find no effects of new facilities on the salience of other issues, such as crime and drugs or housing and affordability (see Figure A20).

Critically for our theorized mechanism, this increased homelessness issue salience is predictive of higher support for homelessness spending. Ranking homelessness as the number one issue is associated with 11 percentage points higher support for Proposition 1 (see Appendix Table A23). Moreover, higher self-reported exposure independently predicts higher homelessness issue salience (See Appendix Table A22). Finally, for increased salience to produce positive policy feedback, it should make “top-of-the head” preexisting, pro-homeless spending attitudes. Indeed, we find consistently positive and precisely estimated effects in precincts with higher baseline support (defined as the top tercile of 2018 support), but inconsistent effects in precincts with lower baseline support (Appendix Table A21). Together, these findings are consistent with our theorized mechanism that exposure to new homeless facilities and their residents increases the salience of homelessness as a politically important issue, making more available preexisting, predominately pro-homeless, considerations at the ballot box.

6.2 Alternative Mechanism: Increased Sympathy for the Homeless

An alternative explanation is that exposure changes voters’ underlying affect towards the homeless, with downstream consequences on support for public policy interventions. This change in underlying affective attitudes could run in either direction: exposure may soften stereotypes and reinforce positive attitudes, including belief in structural causes and sympathy, or alternatively, repeated exposure to stigmatized populations may cause emotional fatigue, lowering compassion and reinforcing negative attitudes.

Given we find positive effects of new facilities on pro-homelessness spending vote choice, it is unlikely that exposure to homelessness changes affective attitudes in a negative direction. Still, we test one prediction of theories of negative affect: that repeated exposure to stigmatized groups produces ‘compassion fatigue’. Here, we should expect residents in places which already had high rates of exposure to homeless people show backlash and reduced support for new facilities. Instead, we find the opposite. The positive effects are concentrated in areas that already had homeless facilities (see Appendix Figure A19), inconsistent with the idea that exposure to homelessness causes negative attitudinal change.¹⁹

Rather, our positive effects leave open the possibility that exposure to homeless facilities causes positive affective attitudinal change. Ideally, we would examine direct measures of affect (e.g. sympathy, feeling thermometers about the homeless). However, we lack direct measures. Instead, using the PPIC survey data, we examine changes in beliefs about the causes of homelessness as a proxy for warmth towards homeless people. This follows prior studies that link sympathetic attitudes and behaviors to the belief that homelessness is driven by structural, rather than individual, causes (Lee et al., 2004). Taking a series of items about respondents’ beliefs of the major factors contributing to homelessness in their local community, we classify three items as structural (loss of income, unaffordable housing, and lack of mental health services) and one as individual (substance abuse).

The top right panel of Figure 5 plots the effect of exposure on these beliefs. While exposure to new facilities is associated with increased belief in one structural cause, lack of mental health services, it is also associated with increased belief in an individual cause, substance abuse. Exposure does not increase attribution of the other two structural causes: housing affordability and loss of income. That is, the evidence from our proxies of warmth towards homeless people is mixed. However, unlike prior studies, we find that attribution of the individual cause, substance abuse, does *not* predict lower support for homelessness spending, while all three structural causes predict higher support (See Appendix Table A23). This is broadly consistent with our theorized mechanism of salience: voters who think more about homelessness find all considerations about its causes more accessible, and these primarily serve to *increase* support, not decrease it. Therefore, while we

¹⁹As an additional test of affective attitudes, Appendix Figure A18 plots the effects by the population type: single adults or facilities which primarily serve families with children, and find no differences in treatment effects.

cannot definitively rule out positive attitudinal change as we lack direct measures, the balance of evidence supports the idea that exposure to homelessness increases salience, activating preexisting positive affective attitudes and pro-spending policy beliefs.

6.3 Alternative Mechanism: Material Self-Interest

A second alternative explanation is that new homeless facilities increase nearby support because they generate positive local externalities, activating self-interest. These positive externalities might come in the form of a reduction in the number of tents or encampments, lower crime rates, increased property values (for homeowners) or decreased rents (for renters), or replacement of previously blighted uses improving neighborhood quality. Voters tracing these positive externalities to new shelter construction could generate the localized support we observe.

As discussed previously, prior literature finds that different types of homeless services cause different localized effects: housing-based facilities, particularly permanent supportive housing, have been repeatedly found to generate positive externalities, while shelter-based facilities may sometimes cause negative externalities. If self-interest drives the response, this divergence should produce heterogeneous treatment effects by facility type. Figure 6 shows the effect of our main differences-in-differences specification split by facility type. We see that both permanent housing and emergency shelters show similar, positive results, with no substantive or statistically significant differences between the two types. This pattern is inconsistent with self-interested updating on diverging externalities — unless, contrary to the previous literature’s findings, both types of facilities produced positive localized externalities. We therefore turn to evaluating localized effects of new shelter openings on objective and observed neighborhood conditions.

Discussions of crime and disorder often dominate at local meetings about proposed homeless shelters (Eisenberg, 2017). To see if these concerns materialized, we collect data on visible street homelessness, 311 reports of encampments and tents, 911 calls, and police stops.²⁰ Visible street homelessness, measured from street view images taken in San Francisco during the study period, is our closest measure of objective conditions. 311 and 911 calls, which are available for a wider set of cities, reflect both street conditions, residents’ presence, and residents’ propensity to

²⁰See Appendix B.3 for details about data sources and coverage.

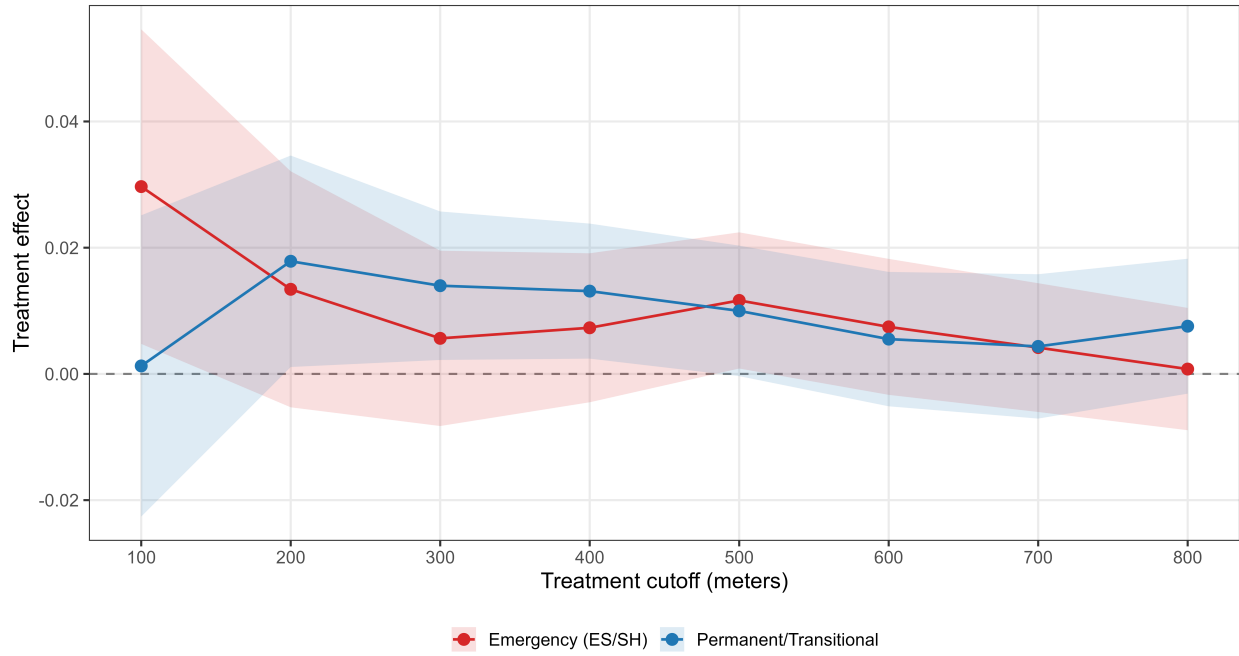


Figure 6: **Minimal differences in new new facility effects between shelters and housing:** points represent IPW difference-in-difference coefficients, estimated with increasing distances (x-axis) at which the treated group is defined. Shaded ribbons represent 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered by facility. Coefficients are from separate regressions of vote share on opening of emergency shelters and permanent supportive housing.

report encampments or crime. Finally, stops are a function of both citizen reporting (through 911 calls) and officer discretion.

We exploit the staggered monthly opening of facilities to conduct stacked event study analyses of the localized effects on these outcomes. Around each new facility, we draw a 200 meter buffer and count the incidence of our geocoded outcomes at the monthly level. Our unit of analysis is the facility-month, allowing us to exploit variation in opening dates across shelters. We estimate dynamic treatment effects using the Callaway & Sant’Anna (2021) group-time difference-in-differences estimator. For each cohort of shelters opening in the same month, the estimator compares changes in outcomes around those shelters with contemporaneous changes around shelters in the same city that have not yet open.²¹ For outcomes observed in multiple cities, we estimate models separately within city and pool them using each city’s share of eligible treated shelters.

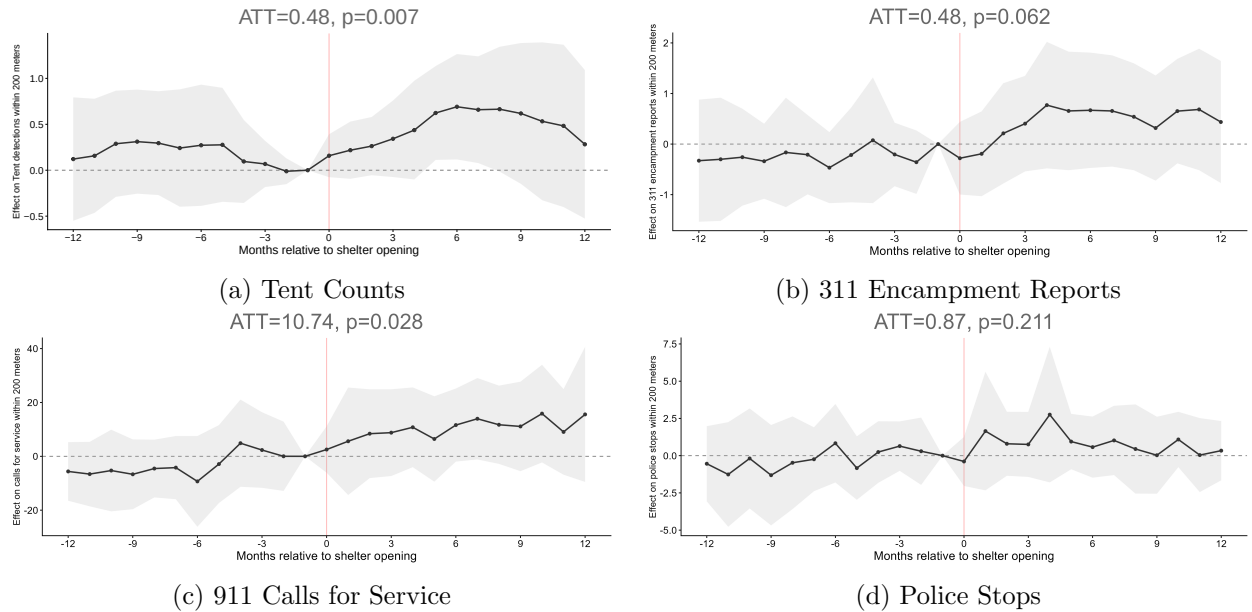


Figure 7: New facility openings do not reduce neighborhood disorder and crime: plot shows Callaway & Sant’Anna (2021) dynamic treatment effects of 2018-2024 facility openings on counts of outcomes within 200m. The vertical line marks the facility opening date. Shaded areas represent 95% confidence intervals. Panel (a) shows effects on visible tent encampments in San Francisco; panel (b) shows effects on 311 reports of encampments in Los Angeles, San Francisco, San Diego, Oakland, San Jose, Pasadena, and Sacramento; panel (c) shows effects on all 911 calls for service in San Francisco, San Jose, and Sacramento; panel (d) shows effects on all police stops in San Francisco, San Diego, Oakland, and Long Beach.

²¹We restrict the estimation to facilities whose 200 meter buffer does not overlap with any buffer from another facility that opened across the time period.

Figure 7 plots the dynamic treatment effects on each outcome 12 months before and after facility opening. We find null effects for 311 encampment reports and police stops, and positive effects for tent counts and 911 calls. In Appendix Table Appendix Table A21 we present results using a 300 meter distance cutoff instead of 200 meter, finding null results across all outcomes. Thus, we do not find evidence that material conditions improved in areas around new shelters, rather finding evidence of no change or increases in indicators of disorder. Still, perceptions may matter more than objective changes (Michener, 2013). To examine perceptions, we take advantage of an item on the 2025 PPIC poll asking residents if crime in their local community has increased, decreased, or stayed the same. We find no effects of shelter exposure on increased perception of either violent and property crime in the fifth panel of Figure 5.

New facilities could alternatively constitute an improvement in the built environment itself. This mechanism is posited as a driver behind the positive effects of new affordable housing projects, which often replaced blighted uses such as vacant lots, parking lots, or abandoned commercial facilities (Hankinson et al., 2026). We test this mechanism systematically with parcel-level land-use data covering most of the Bay Area and nearly all of Southern California. This data indicates the prior land-use on each parcel converted to a homeless service facility (See Appendix B for details). Using this parcel-level data, we code homeless service facilities as previously residential (including mixed use), commercial (including hotels and offices), or industrial (including vacant land and parking lots). Facilities which replace the latter two categories likely represent the most substantial improvements over prior conditions. Figure 8 plots these effects, showing that the general pattern identified in the main analysis replicates most cleanly for residential uses. Former commercial uses display a similar positive and decaying effect after excluding the noisily estimated 100m treatment band; shelters at formerly industrial and vacant sites generate no effects. Together, we interpret these findings as inconsistent with the notion that improvements over prior land-use conditions are overwhelmingly driving the positive effects.

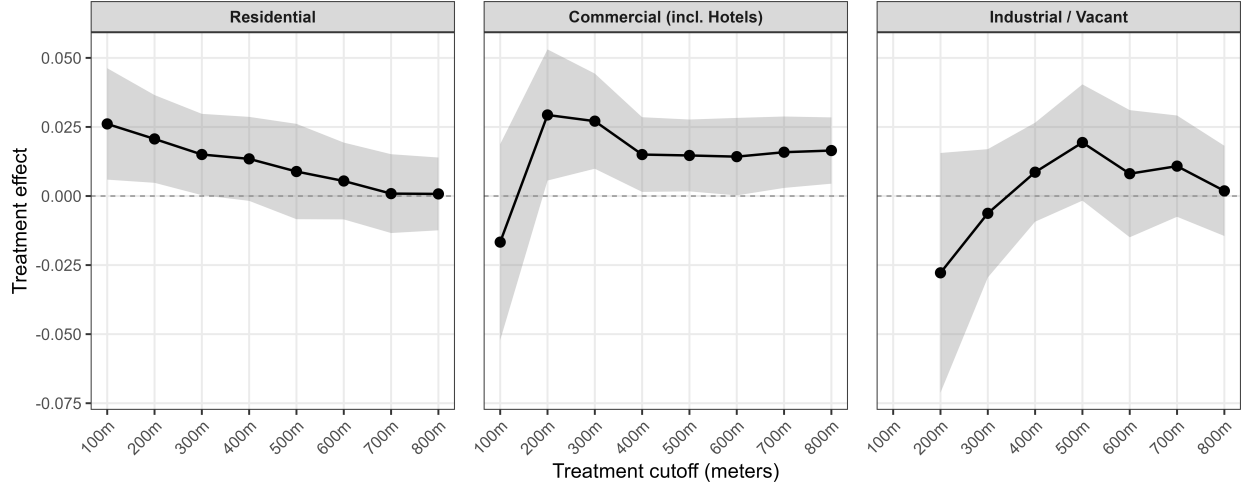


Figure 8: **Effects of new facilities by prior land use:** points represent IPW difference-in-differences coefficients, estimated with increasing distances (x-axis) at which the treated group is defined by the land-use of the homeless facility parcel in the pretreatment period. The shaded area represents 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered at the facility level. The Industrial/Vacant 100-meter IPW point is omitted due to insufficient support to fit the IPW model (4 treated and 89 control precincts).

Finally, even absent objective indicators of changes in material conditions, new homeless services facilities may affect property values. Supportive housing facilities in particular have been repeatedly shown to increase nearby property values, and Hankinson et al. (2026) cite this as a mechanism explaining their findings of positive responses to new low-income affordable housing. To test if this mechanism applies in the case of new homeless services, we similarly decompose the treatment effect based on whether the facility is in a predominately renter or homeowner neighborhood. Appendix Table A20 details the results. We find positive and precisely estimated treatment effects in predominately renter neighborhoods while the effects in predominately homeowner neighborhoods are also positive, but imprecisely estimated. If new facilities increased nearby property values, and these impacts indeed motivated homeowners' support, we should expect larger effects in homeowner-dominated neighborhoods, and smaller or even negative effects in renter neighborhoods, but this is not what we find. We view this, and all our previous tests, as inconsistent with a financial self-interest channel driving our results.

6.4 Alternative Mechanism: Traceability and State Capacity

A final alternative explanation concerns attribution to government and belief in state capacity. Voters could view the provision of new homeless service facilities as a kept promise by politicians, rewarding the actors responsible and feeling more positively towards continuation of the program. Relatedly, new facilities could raise voters’ belief that the state is capable of addressing the problem, which, even holding concern over homelessness constant, would raise support for future spending on policy remedies. As discussed in our theory, these traceability-based accounts require voters to connect the facility to the government that delivered it (Hamel, 2024), whereas salience does not.

We find no evidence for this attribution channel. The bottom right panel of Figure 5 shows no consistent effects on proxies for beliefs in state capacity: the treatment does not increase trust in state actors, nor move beliefs about capacity, such as belief that “government policies and programs can ... reduce poverty in California.” Nor do politicians appear to capture localized credit: we find no consistent effects of proximity to new facilities on vote shares for congressional incumbents (Appendix Table A19).

7 Discussion and Conclusion

This article tests the effects of new homeless service facilities on support for public investment in policy solutions to address homelessness. We address issues of selection that afflict prior studies using a within-neighborhood differences-in-differences design that measures changes in support for two ballot initiatives in 2018 and 2024 where voters chose whether to authorize bonds for construction of homeless service facilities. In doing so, we identify a positive causal effect, evidence of positive policy feedback. We show these positive results are robust to a number of alternative specifications, including on a subset of plausibly exogenous hotel conversions.

In doing so, we also help illuminate the mechanism as to why new homeless facilities cause positive policy feedback. We rule out many alternative explanations, including that new facilities cause localized positive externalities in the form of reductions in crime, perceptions of disorder, or improvement over prior conditions, all of which may activate self-interested considerations. We

also find no evidence that new facilities increase beliefs in state capacity or approval for responsible actors. Rather, our findings suggest new facilities increase the salience of homelessness, making more accessible prior, predominately positive attitudes about homeless people and pro-spending policies. Our findings inform our understanding of voter psychology as it relates to the local built environment and provision of local public goods. We show that voters respond to policies when issues are made salient in their day-to-day lives. The voter living a block or two from a new facility is reminded daily of the policy response to homelessness by the visible presence of the facility itself – even though, as our externalities analysis suggests, observable street conditions do not measurably improve. The voter living even a few blocks further may have a wholly different experience, and the effects of the new facilities are less visible, if present at all. Social geography thus shapes political behavior in part through structuring the daily elements to which voters are exposed.

We recognize that our evidence from California may not generalize well to other contexts. For example, in 2024, 66% of homeless people in California were unsheltered, the highest rate in the nation (U.S. Department of Housing and Urban Development, 2024a). As we find that areas with high baseline rates of unsheltered homelessness show stronger effects, it’s possible that positive policy feedback may not generalize to places with lower rates. This may help explain anecdotal reports of backlash to new facilities in cities with less unsheltered homelessness, such as community backlash leading to the closure of the hotel-to-shelter conversion of the Lucerne Hotel in New York City (Stewart, 2020), or similar reports of community outcry regarding shelter relocations in Boston (Brown & Zoorob, 2022). However, both cities are unique in their own way in providing the Right to Shelter, meaning that no homeless person may be turned away from shelter, leading to the lowest unsheltered homelessness rates in the nation (routinely below 5%). In such places, the political economy of homeless services siting may differ. Additionally, given that we find some evidence of positive feedback being conditioned by preexisting, pro-homeless attitudes, its possible that our results may not generalize to areas where residents have colder feelings or anti-spending policy attitudes. Still, we found no evidence of backlash to new facilities, even in precincts with the lowest baseline support.

Finally, our results speak to public opinion and the barriers to addressing homelessness. Surveys routinely find high public support for pro-homeless interventions (National Alliance to End

Homelessness, 2024). For example, 68% of Los Angeles residents say they would support building a new permanent supportive housing facility within 5 blocks of their own home and 72% say they are willing to pay higher taxes to fund such facilities (Gilbert, 2021). Our findings suggest these attitudes are genuine, and that public opinion may be less a roadblock to solving homelessness than is commonly believed. Rather, our results suggest that federalist fiscal constraints may be the major culprit behind lagging local policy responses to homelessness (Peterson, 1981). When surveyed about the barriers to addressing homelessness, far the biggest concern of mayors is cost – listed by 79% of mayors (Einstein & Willison, 2025). Municipal budgets reflect this concern. For example, operating New York City’s shelter system cost over \$4.3 billion in fiscal year 2025 (New York City Office of Management and Budget, 2026). In Los Angeles, analysis suggests an additional \$15 billion over 10 years is needed to address homelessness at current levels (Los Angeles Housing Department, 2024). Given the hard constraints placed on the local governments tasked with addressing homelessness, the competing considerations of fiscal stewardship vis-a-vis public opinion (Hankinson & Pietrzak, n.d.) may help explain why homelessness remains a pervasive issue despite public support for policies to address it.

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Appendix: Exposure to Homelessness and Support for Policy Remedies

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A Ballot measures

Table A1: California ballot measures related to homelessness spending

Measure	Date	Geography	Revenue type	Directed to	% Yes
Prop 41	Jun 2014	California	General obligation bonds (\$600M)	Affordable housing for homeless veterans	65.4
Measure HHH	Nov 2016	City of LA	General obligation bonds (\$1.2B)	Permanent supportive housing	77.1
Measure H	Mar 2017	LA County	Sales tax (0.25%, 10-yr)	Homelessness services	69.3
Measure C	Nov 2018	San Francisco	Gross receipts tax on large business	Homelessness programs	61.3
Prop 2	Nov 2018	California	Revenue bonds (\$2B, from existing Prop 63)	Permanent supportive housing	63.4
Prop 1	Mar 2024	California	GO bonds (\$6.4B) + MHSA restructuring	Behavioral health facilities + housing	50.2
Prop B	Nov 2024	San Francisco	General obligation bonds (\$390M)	Public health, shelter, and street-safety facilities	72.8
Measure A	Nov 2024	LA County	Sales tax (0.5%, replaces Measure H)	Affordable housing and homelessness services	57.8

B Data

B.1 Homeless Services Facilities

To identify homeless services facilities, we use data from two sources. The first is the U.S. Department of Housing and Urban Development (HUD) Housing Inventory Count (HIC). We use the 2024 and 2019 files, which are current as of January of those years, the closest dates to the November 2018 and March 2024 elections. HIC provides addresses for nearly all homeless service facilities that participate in the federal Homeless Management Information System (HMIS), required as a condition for receiving federal money from HUD.²² We subset this data only to site-based facilities, those operated out of (typically) one physical address.²³ After cleaning the address strings, we geocode these addresses using the ArcGIS geocoder. While HUD typically de-duplicates projects at the address level, such that one facility that serves multiple programs or populations are not disaggregated, inconsistent address information typically in the form of multiple address aliases often leads to slightly different geocoding for each project. We de-duplicate projects, defining projects as the same facility if they are within a 25-meter radius of each other. We preserve information about all facilities de-duplicated in this process, aggregating the number of beds and identifying each of the population(s) served. Then, we identify treatment facilities – those opened after November 2018 – by identifying the subset of facilities that appear in the 2024 data but did not appear in the 2019 data.²⁴

The second source is the California Homeless Data Integration System (HDIS), obtained via request from the California Interagency Council on Homelessness (Cal ICH). We were provided the 2018 through 2023 files. These data include facilities that only rely on state-and-local funding sources, facilities that serve formerly homeless populations, and facilities that serve populations at very high risk of homelessness. The first two types represent a large number of facilities in California, as state-and-local ballot propositions have funded many new facilities that do not rely

²²Addresses for sensitive populations, specifically victims of domestic violence and HIV/AIDS facilities, are not typically available to protect the privacy of clients.

²³A smaller subset of facilities are site-based cluster facilities, meaning that services may be provided at multiple physical locations. We remove these facilities in robustness checks.

²⁴We also have information about the “inventory start date.” It is unclear how these start dates are determined. For example, it is unclear if a facility which was used in the past but since closed and has been re-opened would be coded. We drop facilities which have an inventory start date prior to the treatment period. All results are similar if these facilities are included or excluded from the analysis.

on federal money. A representative example of such projects would be supportive housing facilities that dedicate certain percentages of units for people currently in the shelter system. HDIS does not include address information about each project. As a result, we use a different method to de-duplicate and geocode these facilities.

To de-duplicate HDIS facilities, we clean the project name provided, and consider a project to be the same if it shares the same name, ZIP Code, Continuum of Care (CoC) name, project-type (emergency shelters, supportive housing, safe havens, and rapid re-housing), and housing type (site-based single-sites, site-based cluster-sites, and tenant-based scatter-sites). Cal ICH typically does not de-duplicate projects at the address level, so most facilities that serve multiple programs or populations are disaggregated. This method resolves most of these duplications. We preserve information about all facilities de-duplicated in this process, aggregating the number of beds and identifying each of the population(s) served. Then, we identify treatment facilities – those opened after November 2018 – by identifying the subset of facilities that appear in the 2023 data but did not appear in the 2019 data.²⁵

To geocode HDIS facilities, we attempt to find the address of all de-duplicated site-based projects in the state by triangulating several fields – project name, CoC name, number of beds, project type, and ZIP Code. We use multiple sources, including homeless service providers (pamphlets, help finding websites), reporting on homeless facilities in the press, city services databases, or Google reviews. This process also helped identify additional duplicate entries at the same address. We found an address for 1,427 new site-based projects of a possible 1,891 (75%). Our coverage is higher for emergency shelters, safe havens, and supportive housing sites (See Appendix Table A2). After cleaning the address strings, we geocode these addresses using the ArcGIS geocoder. To reflect uncertainty in our address collection process, our coders identified if their confidence in the site location was high or low, and we include it in some models as a robustness check.

Next, we combine the two data sources. We replicate the method used for the HUD data, defining projects as the same facility if they are within a 25-meter radius of each other. Where possible, we preserve information about all facilities de-duplicated in this process, aggregating the

²⁵At the time of request, only the 2023 data was available. It is possible that some facilities have closed between 2023 and 2024. However, this error should, if anything, attenuate our main treatment effects towards zero, as we are considering areas treated which should be considered control.

Table A2: Geocoding Coverage of Cal ICH HDIS New Site-Based Projects, by Type

Project Type	Not Found	Geocoded	Total
Emergency Shelter	39 <i>9%</i>	388 <i>91%</i>	427 <i>100%</i>
Supportive Housing	89 <i>10%</i>	809 <i>90%</i>	898 <i>100%</i>
Rapid Re-Housing	102 <i>81%</i>	24 <i>19%</i>	126 <i>100%</i>
Safe Haven	1 <i>6%</i>	16 <i>94%</i>	17 <i>100%</i>
Transitional Housing	233 <i>55%</i>	190 <i>45%</i>	423 <i>100%</i>
Total	464 <i>25%</i>	1,427 <i>75%</i>	1,891 <i>100%</i>

number of beds and identifying each of the population(s) served.²⁶ Our final dataset of treated facilities contains 2,129 unique addresses. Of these, 934 appear only in the HUD HIC, 876 appear only in the Cal ICH HDIS, and 319 appeared in both. Of the facilities unique to each dataset, HIC represents more emergency shelters (47% of all HUD HIC-unique facilities), whereas HDIS represents more permanent supportive housing (51% of all Cal ICH HDIS-unique facilities).

Finally, we trim our dataset to drop potentially erroneous facilities. Appendix Table A3 documents these exclusions. The majority of dropped facilities are due to administrative errors in the reported opening date of the facility.

Table A3: Treatment shelter sample: exclusion waterfall

Stage	Sites removed	Remaining
Eligible address sites after component-level exclusions and address deduplication	—	1,656
Apply opening-date window (Nov. 2018–Apr. 2024)	76	1,580
Require usable analysis coordinates	1	1,579

B.2 Voter File Data

We measure individual-level turnout in our analyses using statewide voter registration lists. These data consist of publicly available records that are collected from the state. We acquired these data from the vendor L2. These data list every registered voter in California for each year from

²⁶We note, however, that not all HDIS facilities had complete information about the populations served at each facility. Therefore, analyses disaggregated by population served will have a smaller N.

2014 to 2025. The data include information on voters’ names, dates of birth, residential addresses, gender, partisan registration, and whether or not they voted in general, primary, and municipal elections. The data also include voter race, which is imputed by the vendor using information on voter location and name (Imai & Khanna, 2016).

B.3 Data on Shelter Externalities

Our externalities analysis draws on four measures of street conditions and the public response to them: tent counts from street-level imagery, 311 reports of encampments, 911 calls for service, and police stops. The cities covered by each measure are dictated by data availability, so coverage differs across outcomes; we describe each source in turn below. Throughout, treatment is defined by the staggered monthly openings of homeless service facilities between 2018 and 2024.

B.3.1 Street-Level Imagery

For San Francisco, we obtain predicted tent counts from Jung et al. (2026), who develop a computer vision pipeline to measure visible homelessness from street-level imagery. Their approach collects geotagged photographs from Mapillary, a crowdsourced platform, and applies GroundingDINO—a zero-shot object detection model—to identify tents in each image. They then generate daily predictions on a grid of 100m cells covering San Francisco using these detections paired with 311 reports and features of the built environment, such as overpasses. This provides a more objective measure of street conditions than administrative complaint data, which requires human reporting.

B.3.2 311 Reports

Many California cities allow residents to report street homelessness in public rights-of-way through their 311 systems. We obtain encampment-related incident reports for seven of the largest cities in the state: Los Angeles, San Francisco, San Diego, Oakland, San Jose, Pasadena, and Sacramento. For each city we collect both the homelessness-specific requests and the full volume of 311 requests, which we use to construct denominators. Each city exposes encampment requests through its own category field; Table A4 lists the exact field and value we retain for each. Most of these series span the full study period; the exceptions are San Jose and Sacramento, whose 311 encampment data begin only in mid-2021 and 2020, respectively, when those systems came online.

Table A4: 311 encampment request subsets, by city

City	Category field	Retained value
Los Angeles	<code>requesttype</code>	“Homeless Encampment”
San Francisco	<code>service_name</code>	“Encampments”
San Diego	<code>service_name</code>	“Encampment”
Oakland	<code>description</code>	contains “homeless”
San Jose	<code>Category</code>	“Homeless concerns”
Pasadena	<code>MAJOR_CATEGORY</code>	“UNHOUSED”
Sacramento	<code>CategoryLevel1</code>	“Homeless Camp”

B.3.3 911 Calls for Service

We supplement these measures with the public’s calls to police dispatch, collecting all 911 calls for service for San Francisco, San Jose, and Sacramento. Unlike the 311 series, which we restrict to encampment-specific requests, the calls-for-service measure counts the full volume of calls near each shelter: it is a broad gauge of the demand residents place on emergency response rather than a homelessness-specific complaint. Calls for service capture residents’ propensity to summon a response to perceived street conditions, and so reflect both the underlying conditions and residents’ willingness to report them. San Jose additionally records whether the call concerned an unhoused individual, which we use in a supplementary analysis of homelessness-flagged calls.

B.3.4 Police Stops

Finally, we measure police stops, which are a function of both citizen reporting and officer discretion. We obtain geocoded stop records—reported at the address or block level rather than the beat level—for San Francisco, San Diego, Oakland, and Long Beach, and count all stops within each shelter radius. Where the agency records the officer’s perception of whether the stopped individual was unhoused, we separately examine stops of perceived homeless persons as a supplementary analysis. Only San Francisco and Long Beach populate such a field in usable form: San Francisco’s `is_person_unhoused` (which we treat as flagged when it reads TRUE, Y, YES, or 1) and Long Beach’s `perceived_unhoused` (flagged when YES). San Diego’s records nominally contain a `perceivedunhoused` field but leave it unpopulated, and Oakland records none, so neither contributes to the unhoused-stop analysis. Both usable fields reflect the officer’s perception rather than a verified housing status.

B.3.5 Aggregation

For each outcome we draw a 200m and 300m radius around the site of every new shelter that opens during the study period in the cities where the measure is available, in order to capture the localized effect of its opening. We aggregate each measure to the shelter-by-month level separately for both distance cutoffs. For the tent detections we take the median of the daily predicted counts within each month; for 311 reports, calls for service, and police stops we sum the number of records falling within the shelter radius in each month.

B.4 Public Opinion Data: PPIC Surveys

To probe the mechanisms behind our voting results, we draw on statewide opinion surveys conducted by the Public Policy Institute of California (PPIC), which periodically field questions on homelessness, exposure to it, and support for shelters and related interventions. Although PPIC asked comparable items as far back as its November 2019 wave, that wave did not record respondents' ZIP codes, which precludes linking respondents to local shelter treatment and rules out a pre/post comparison. We therefore restrict attention to three post-treatment waves that do geocode respondents to ZIP codes: a December 2023 survey ($N = 1,660$) and February 2024 survey ($N = 1,628$) fielded just before the March 2024 Proposition 1 vote and an October 2025 survey ($N = 1,707$). PPIC uses a high quality probability-based online panel (Ipsos KnowledgePanel), primarily recruited via address-based sampling (Baldassare & PPIC Statewide Survey Staff, 2023).

We link each respondent to the shelter-treatment status of their ZIP code using the same treatment definition as our main analysis: a ZIP is treated if a new facility opened between January 2019 and January 2024. To capture the intensive margin, we also sum the new beds added in each ZIP over the period and split treated ZIPs at the median—90 new beds—into lower- and higher-intensity groups. Among the 1,660 December 2023 respondents, 677 fall in untreated ZIPs, 479 in lower-intensity treated ZIPs, and 504 in higher-intensity treated ZIPs.

Treated and untreated ZIPs differ systematically: treated ZIPs have markedly fewer homeowners, fewer white residents, and younger populations. These characteristics are strong predictors of attitudes toward housing. We therefore report estimates from a fully-saturated model that

controls on individual-level observable characteristics available to us: homeownership, race (White, Black, Latino, Asian, and other/mixed), income (under \$20,000, \$20,000 to under \$40,000, \$40,000 to under \$60,000, \$60,000 to under \$80,000, \$80,000 to under \$100,000, \$100,000 to under \$200,000, and \$200,000 or more), age (below 45, 45 or older), length of residence (less than 10 years, more than 10 years), ideology (liberal, not liberal), education (less than 4-year college degree, 4-year college degree or more), gender (male, female or other), self-reported likelihood of voting (likely, unlikely), and self-reported voter registration status (registered, not registered or do not know).

The surveys support several families of outcomes used in our mechanism tests: stated support for Proposition 1 and for other homelessness interventions (such as local addiction-treatment centers, converting offices to housing, and building tiny homes); the salience of and concern about homelessness (whether it is the state’s most important problem, whether it is a “big problem” locally, and degree of personal concern with the presence of homeless people in a respondents community); self-reported exposure (how often respondents see and interact with homeless people); attribution of its causes (housing affordability, loss of income, substance abuse, and lack of mental-health services); and proxies for confidence in state government (gubernatorial and legislative approval, the state’s direction, trust in Sacramento, and beliefs about government waste). Two retrospective items in the October 2025 wave—perceived changes in local homelessness and in crime over the prior twelve months—reference a window that falls after the treatment period, so we read them as merely suggestive.

B.5 Land-Use Data

To identify pretreatment parcel-level land-uses, we draw on three sources. The first is the SFEI Enhanced MTC 2020 Land Use database. We download this dataset from the San Francisco Estuary Institute. This dataset includes a 2020 land use layer which categorizes uses for each parcel in: Alameda, Contra Costa, Marin, Napa, San Francisco, San Mateo, Santa Clara, Santa Cruz, Sonoma, and Solano counties. The second is the Southern California Association of Governments (SCAG) 2019 Annual Land Use database. This dataset includes a 2019 land use layer which categorizes uses for each parcel in: Orange, Imperial, Los Angeles, Riverside, San Bernardino, and Ventura counties. Finally, the third dataset is the 2019 San Diego County Land Use Map database, obtained

via request from the city GIS office (SanGIS).

Based on the detailed land-use descriptions in each of the three datasets, we harmonize land-use into categories: residential (including single family and multifamily), commercial (including general commercial, retail, mixed use, and commercial offices), industrial and vacant (including light industrial and warehousing, heavy industrial, public utilities, and vacant land). A residual other category encompasses agriculture, open space, parcels used for public institutions, and unknown uses.

C Descriptive statistics and main estimates

C.1 Comparison of effective sample precincts to statewide California precincts

Table A5: Effective estimation sample vs. all California precincts

	Statewide	Effective sample, by treatment cutoff			
		100m	300m	500m	800m
2018 yes-vote share	0.614 (0.132)	0.756 (0.101)	0.741 (0.103)	0.729 (0.104)	0.717 (0.108)
2018 turnout	0.653 (0.197)	0.575 (0.147)	0.582 (0.148)	0.588 (0.145)	0.598 (0.144)
2024 turnout	0.353 (0.159)	0.286 (0.129)	0.289 (0.132)	0.294 (0.134)	0.301 (0.138)
2018 total votes	796.015 (705.674)	824.163 (606.710)	850.830 (649.562)	875.860 (685.440)	893.193 (699.585)
2024 total votes	474.960 (453.581)	419.697 (337.540)	441.704 (376.839)	461.223 (404.947)	479.369 (417.173)
2016 Dem share (cong.)	0.613 (0.226)	0.827 (0.179)	0.808 (0.187)	0.795 (0.191)	0.777 (0.194)
Pre-existing shelters	0.105 (0.593)	0.847 (2.006)	0.616 (1.618)	0.502 (1.420)	0.393 (1.222)
Pre-existing beds	5.413 (60.913)	55.193 (248.028)	38.640 (192.348)	30.307 (162.913)	22.298 (135.365)
% White	0.660 (0.202)	0.533 (0.214)	0.547 (0.211)	0.557 (0.211)	0.574 (0.209)
Log population density	6.742 (2.025)	8.331 (1.103)	8.245 (1.042)	8.161 (1.022)	8.075 (0.996)
Log population	7.071 (1.601)	7.556 (1.241)	7.546 (1.323)	7.523 (1.391)	7.518 (1.367)
Log median home value	12.993 (0.658)	13.012 (0.588)	13.012 (0.584)	13.009 (0.604)	13.013 (0.611)
Log median household income	11.206 (0.468)	10.884 (0.478)	10.934 (0.473)	10.969 (0.465)	11.005 (0.463)
% BA+	0.331 (0.204)	0.298 (0.213)	0.299 (0.210)	0.299 (0.207)	0.304 (0.207)
Homeownership rate	0.605 (0.226)	0.327 (0.209)	0.365 (0.217)	0.391 (0.218)	0.417 (0.221)
Precincts	16,241	796	1,413	2,052	3,036
Registered voters (2018)	19,605,079	1,158,613	2,082,164	3,049,290	4,522,440
Share of statewide registration	1.000	0.059	0.106	0.156	0.231

Notes: Cells report precinct means with standard deviations in parentheses. ACS covariates are from the 5-year ACS ending in 2018.

C.2 L2 registrants at new-facility addresses

Table A6: L2 registrants and primary voters at new homeless-site addresses

Statistic	<i>N</i>	Registered at site	Primary voters	Registered / registration (%)	Primary voters / votes (%)
<i>Statewide facilities:</i>					
Total / overall share	1,579	6,958	48	0.303	0.007
<i>Distribution across new shelter address sites</i>					
Mean	1,579	4.4	0.030		
P0	1,579	0.0	0.0		
P25	1,579	0.0	0.0		
P50	1,579	0.0	0.0		
P75	1,579	2.0	0.0		
P90	1,579	8.0	0.0		
P95	1,579	15.0	0.0		
P99	1,579	57.4	1.0		
<i>Distribution across shelter-containing precincts</i>					
Mean	1,101	6.3	0.044	1.048	0.085
P0	1,101	0.0	0.0	0.000	0.000
P25	1,101	0.0	0.0	0.000	0.000
P50	1,101	1.0	0.0	0.038	0.000
P75	1,101	4.0	0.0	0.242	0.000
P90	1,101	13.0	0.0	1.040	0.000
P95	1,101	25.0	0.0	2.916	0.000
P99	1,101	77.0	1.0	23.170	0.444

Notes: Counts use 2024 L2 snapshot addresses and March 5, 2024 primary vote history.

D Validation and Robustness Checks

D.1 Main results

Table A7: Naive difference-in-differences and covariate-IPW estimates of shelter proximity

	100m	200m	300m	400m	500m	600m	700m	800m
Naive DiD	0.0214*** (0.0078)	0.0200*** (0.0056)	0.0130*** (0.0042)	0.0101*** (0.0035)	0.0091*** (0.0033)	0.0058* (0.0031)	0.0045 (0.0030)	0.0045 (0.0029)
Observations	783	1,088	1,381	1,673	1,999	2,328	2,639	2,953
Treated precincts	58	219	405	638	934	1,233	1,509	1,824
Comparison precincts	725	869	976	1,035	1,065	1,095	1,130	1,129
Covariate IPW	0.0101 (0.0087)	0.0180*** (0.0065)	0.0118** (0.0048)	0.0106** (0.0041)	0.0099** (0.0040)	0.0063 (0.0039)	0.0042 (0.0038)	0.0047 (0.0036)
Observations	781	1,086	1,378	1,669	1,995	2,324	2,635	2,950
Treated precincts	58	218	403	636	932	1,231	1,506	1,821
Comparison precincts	723	868	975	1,033	1,063	1,093	1,129	1,129
Effective comparison N	137.4	167.6	675.8	616.2	680.7	696.1	779.6	763.4

Notes: * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

D.2 Results in alternative samples

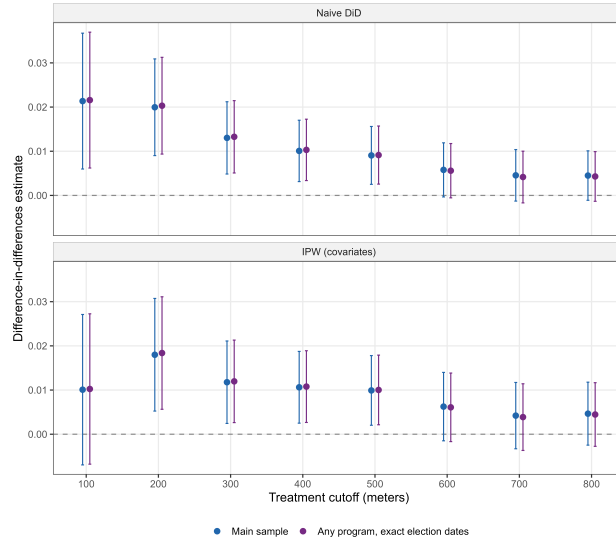


Figure A1: Effect of new shelters on referendum support – Alternative exact election date sample

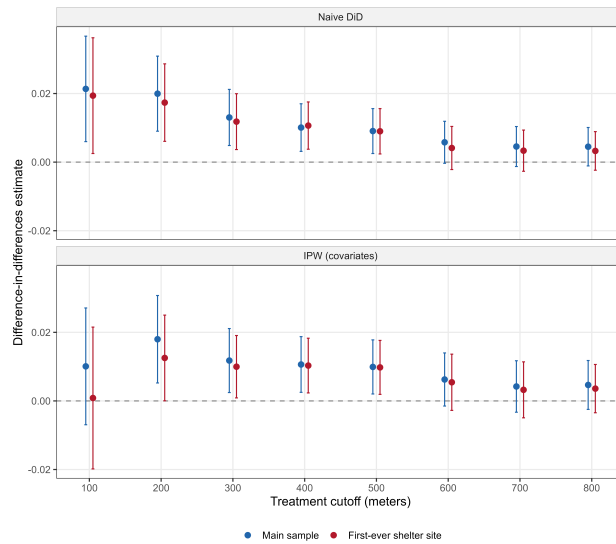


Figure A2: Effect of new shelters on referendum support – Alternative new site sample

D.3 Alternative Treatment and Control Specifications

One set of threats to the robustness of our main result comes from the definition of treatment and control precincts. Since we are working with precincts of various shapes and sizes, researcher choices about how to define these units may influence the results. Our main specification defines treatment as proximity within a given distance cutoff and control as precincts in a 350-meter donut. We evaluate three alternatives: a continuous-exposure design, a fixed-sample design that holds the sample of non-excluded precincts fixed while varying the threshold between treatment and control, and alternative control-band constructions that matched treated units on area and number of precincts.

We first replace the binary treatment indicator with a continuous exposure measure: the share of a precinct’s area falling within a given buffer radius of any new shelter. This design relaxes the threshold assumption entirely and uses the full gradient of spatial overlap. The results closely mirror the main specification—the distance-gradient in support is sustained and of comparable magnitude across the distance spectrum (Figure A3).

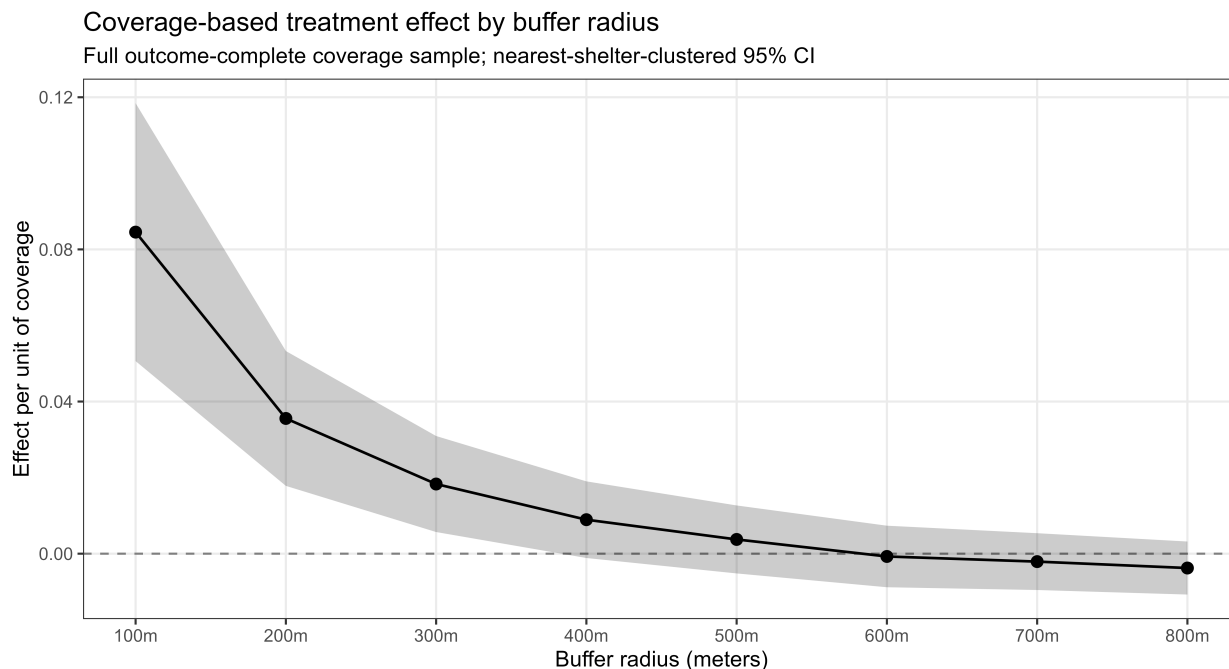


Figure A3: Effect of shelter proximity on vote share, continuous-exposure design. Treatment is the share of precinct area falling within a given buffer radius of any new shelter, replacing the binary treated/control indicator. Bars are 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered by shelter.

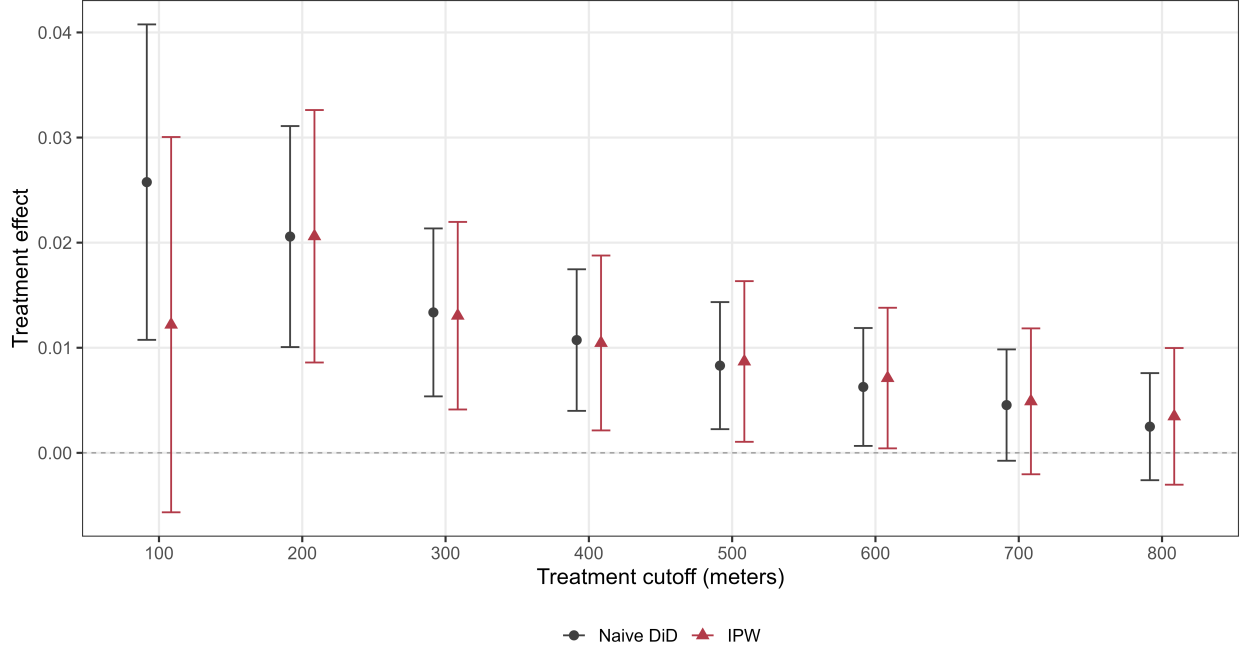


Figure A4: IPW effects with 500 meter control band

In Figure A4, we demonstrate the robustness of our results to a different control unit band (500 meters instead of 350 meters).

We then implement a fixed-sample design that holds the precincts included in the analysis constant. We include all precincts within 1 kilometer of a new shelter and vary only the treated-versus-control threshold. This eliminates any concern that changes in the comparison sample across cutoffs drive the distance gradient. The estimates are consistent with the main results across all thresholds (Figure A5a).

Finally, we replace the 350-meter donut with three alternative control-band constructions: matched-area, which picks control units until the geographic area is roughly the same as the treatment units; matched- N , which picks a similar number of control precincts; and geometric-area, which varies the control donut around the treated ring to equal the same area. All three yield estimates that are directionally consistent and of similar magnitude across distance cutoffs (Figure A5b; matched-area and geometric-area in Appendix Figures A5c and A5d).

We additionally define our treatment in a continuous fashion using the count of new shelters and the count of new beds, instead of our binary treatment of a new shelter. We show the

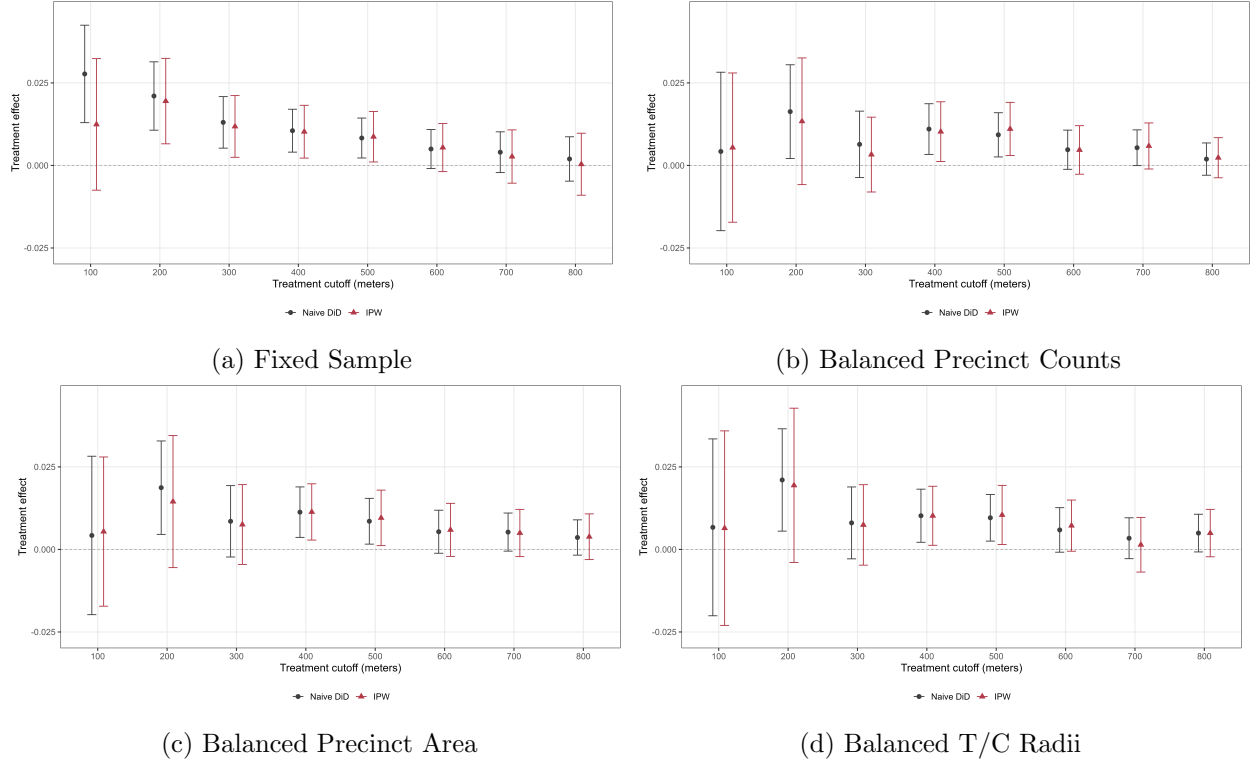


Figure A5: Main effect robust to alternative specifications and treatment/control definitions

results in Figure A6.

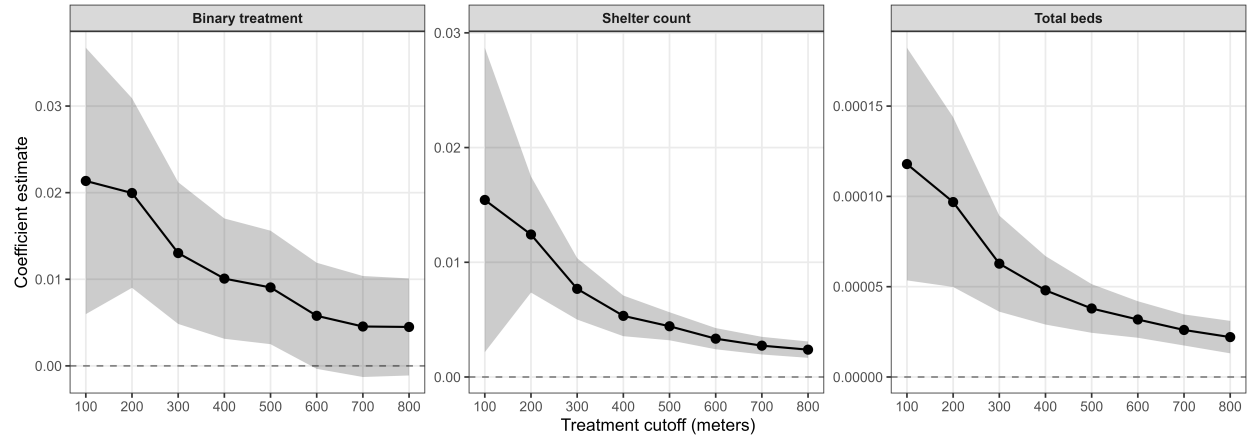


Figure A6: Effect of shelter intensity on vote share

Pre-period placebo DiD tests relative to 2018

Rows show distance cutoffs from 100m to 800m using the main 350m donut control band. Panel subtitles report placebo DiD estimates on the 0-1 proportion scale with precinct and year fixed effects and shelter-clustered standard errors.

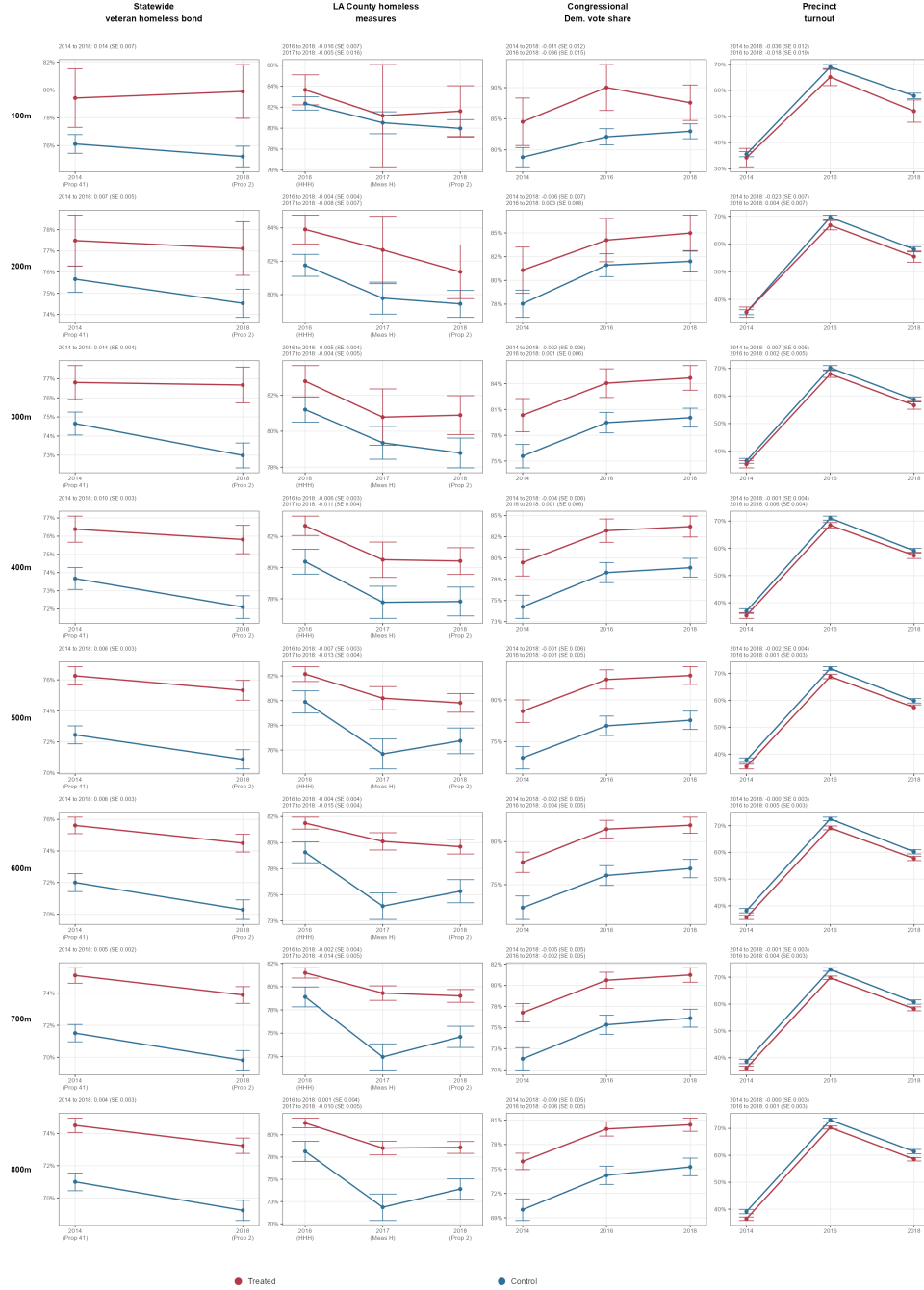


Figure A7: Raw Pre-trend across all distance cutoffs (100m–800m) and four outcomes. Each panel plots group means over time for treated (red) and control (blue) precincts; subtitle annotations report the differential pre-period slope, standard error, and p -value. Rows: distance cutoffs from 100m to 800m in 100m steps. Columns: (A) statewide homeless proposition vote share, using the 2014 primary (Proposition 41) and 2018 general (Proposition 2); (B) LA County homeless measure vote share, using November 2016 (Measure HHH), March 2017 (Measure H), and November 2018 (Proposition 2); (C) Congressional Democratic vote share in 2014, 2016, and 2018; (D) precinct turnout in 2014, 2016, and 2018.

D.4 Endogeneity: Homekey Shelters

Appendix Figure A8 plots the main treatment effects for the subset of facilities that were coded as a commercial hotel (based on land-use data) and which are likely Homekey sites (the facility name matched California Homekey award tracking documents).

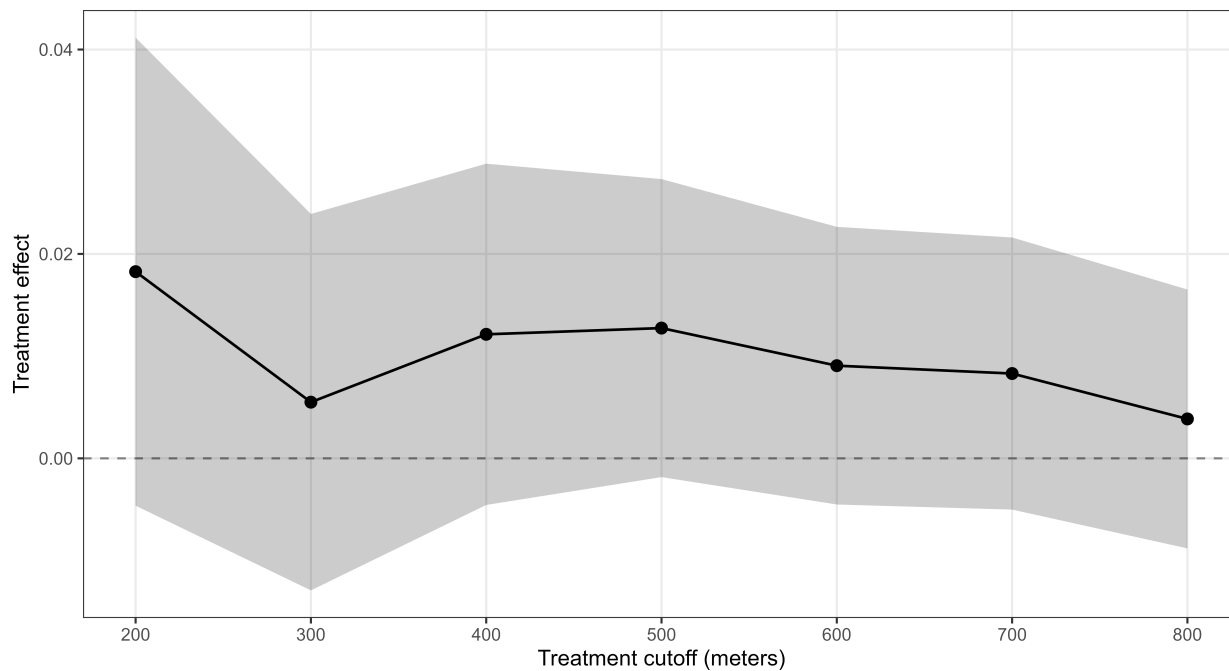


Figure A8: Effect of Homekey shelter proximity on vote share. Panel shows difference-in-differences estimates at each distance cutoff restricting to shelters identified as Homekey hotel conversions. Control precincts are assigned by proximity to unconverted hotels.

D.5 Placebo: Pre-existing Shelters

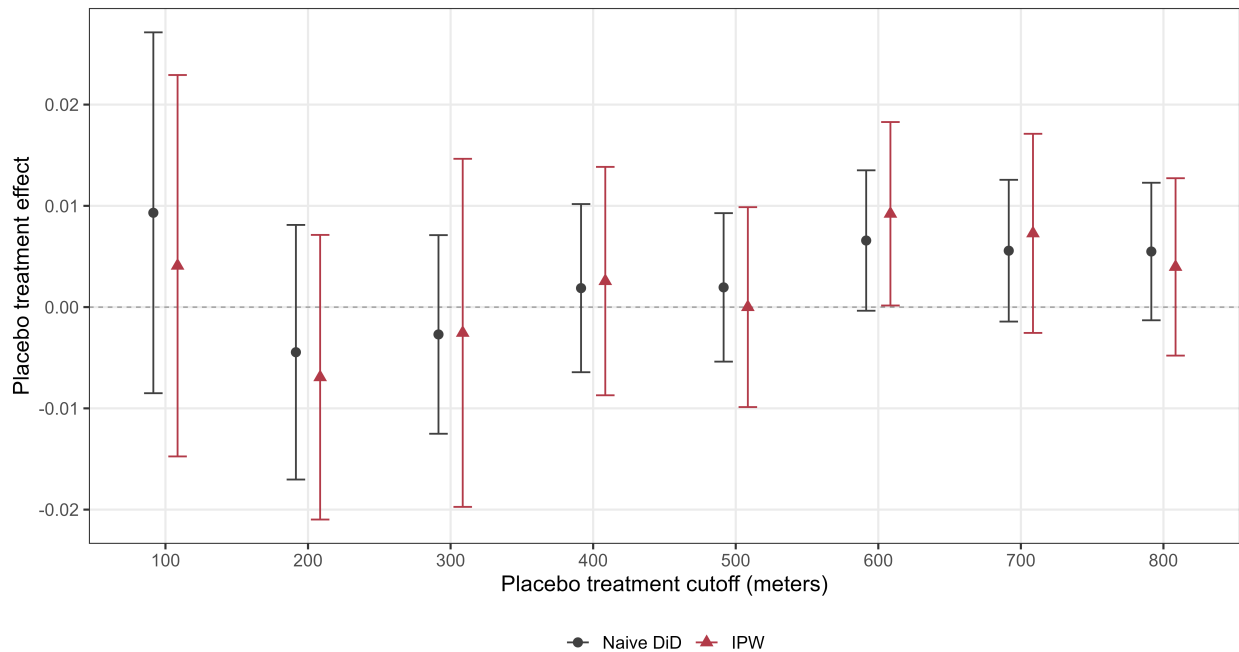


Figure A9: Placebo test using pre-existing (pre-2018) shelters as the treatment. Points are difference-in-differences coefficients from the main IPW specification, with the change in homeless-spending referendum support (Proposition 2 in 2018 to Proposition 1 in 2024) as the outcome. Treated precincts are within the cutoff of a pre-existing shelter; control precincts are between the cutoff and the cutoff plus 350m. At each cutoff, precincts within the cutoff of a new (2018–2024) shelter are excluded from both groups to avoid contamination by the real treatment. Bars are 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered by nearest pre-existing shelter.

D.6 Balance

Table A8: Unweighted and covariate-IPW balance (100-meter cutoff)

	Treated ($N = 61$)		Comparison ring ($N = 735$)		Unweighted		IPW-adjusted	
	Mean	SD	Mean	SD	Diff.	p	Diff.	p
2018 yes-vote share	0.799	0.076	0.752	0.102	0.047	<0.001	0.013	0.257
2018 turnout	0.521	0.169	0.579	0.144	-0.058	0.011	-0.011	0.615
2018 total votes	688.610	445.113	835.505	617.205	-146.896	0.019	-32.928	0.604
2016 Democratic congressional vote share	0.900	0.147	0.821	0.180	0.079	<0.001	0.019	0.373
Pre-existing shelters	2.689	5.137	0.694	1.377	1.995	0.004	0.582	0.455
Pre-existing beds	243.361	788.633	39.577	112.266	203.784	0.048	109.696	0.312
White share	0.464	0.201	0.539	0.214	-0.075	0.007	0.002	0.932
Log population density	8.946	1.066	8.280	1.091	0.666	<0.001	0.028	0.861
Log population	7.541	1.151	7.557	1.249	-0.016	0.917	-0.005	0.969
Log median home value	13.003	0.644	13.012	0.584	-0.009	0.912	-0.064	0.533
Log median household income	10.728	0.530	10.897	0.471	-0.170	0.018	-0.015	0.857
Bachelor's degree or higher share	0.292	0.200	0.299	0.214	-0.007	0.804	0.003	0.917
Homeownership rate	0.246	0.209	0.334	0.208	-0.088	0.002	-0.005	0.875

Table A9: Unweighted and covariate-IPW balance (200-meter cutoff)

	Treated ($N = 224$)		Comparison ring ($N = 882$)		Unweighted		IPW-adjusted	
	Mean	SD	Mean	SD	Diff.	p	Diff.	p
2018 yes-vote share	0.771	0.095	0.745	0.100	0.026	<0.001	0.006	0.588
2018 turnout	0.554	0.152	0.581	0.143	-0.026	0.020	-0.011	0.374
2018 total votes	699.641	515.620	882.965	666.875	-183.323	<0.001	-74.312	0.108
2016 Democratic congressional vote share	0.842	0.174	0.816	0.182	0.026	0.046	0.002	0.894
Pre-existing shelters	1.522	3.199	0.502	1.069	1.020	<0.001	-0.141	0.848
Pre-existing beds	114.045	432.556	27.493	92.901	86.551	0.003	21.451	0.634
White share	0.512	0.206	0.544	0.213	-0.032	0.042	0.008	0.695
Log population density	8.491	1.153	8.262	0.986	0.228	0.007	0.095	0.350
Log population	7.448	1.276	7.617	1.276	-0.169	0.078	-0.066	0.568
Log median home value	13.001	0.577	13.017	0.576	-0.016	0.711	-0.023	0.665
Log median household income	10.819	0.489	10.930	0.465	-0.111	0.002	-0.025	0.489
Bachelor's degree or higher share	0.286	0.202	0.298	0.213	-0.012	0.436	-0.005	0.827
Homeownership rate	0.290	0.214	0.361	0.210	-0.071	<0.001	-0.004	0.860

Table A10: Unweighted and covariate-IPW balance (300-meter cutoff)

	Treated ($N = 411$)		Comparison ring ($N = 1002$)		Unweighted		IPW-adjusted	
	Mean	SD	Mean	SD	Diff.	p	Diff.	p
2018 yes-vote share	0.767	0.096	0.730	0.104	0.037	<0.001	0.016	0.004
2018 turnout	0.566	0.148	0.588	0.147	-0.022	0.012	-0.006	0.466
2018 total votes	780.605	565.298	879.714	679.363	-99.109	0.005	-29.028	0.439
2016 Democratic congressional vote share	0.841	0.172	0.795	0.192	0.046	<0.001	0.015	0.158
Pre-existing shelters	1.144	2.528	0.399	0.957	0.744	<0.001	0.357	0.027
Pre-existing beds	81.895	333.252	20.897	74.948	60.998	<0.001	36.903	0.049
White share	0.517	0.214	0.559	0.209	-0.041	<0.001	-0.005	0.701
Log population density	8.472	1.099	8.152	1.003	0.319	<0.001	0.087	0.201
Log population	7.531	1.247	7.552	1.354	-0.021	0.782	-0.005	0.951
Log median home value	13.027	0.555	13.006	0.595	0.021	0.532	0.013	0.729
Log median household income	10.865	0.486	10.963	0.465	-0.098	<0.001	-0.005	0.858
Bachelor's degree or higher share	0.301	0.212	0.298	0.209	0.002	0.854	0.011	0.412
Homeownership rate	0.307	0.212	0.389	0.215	-0.082	<0.001	-0.010	0.435

D.7 Pre-trend and estimator robustness

Table A11: Effect of new shelter on support for homeless shelter referenda – pre-trend robustness alternative specifications

Estimator	100	200	300	400	500	600	700	800
DR-DiD: covariates	0.0043 (0.0097)	0.0141* (0.0067)	0.0113* (0.0049)	0.0091* (0.0038)	0.0094** (0.0037)	0.0077* (0.0035)	0.0055 (0.0035)	0.0053 (0.0036)
IPW: covariates + d_{pre}	0.0129 (0.0087)	0.0195** (0.0065)	0.0148** (0.0046)	0.0109** (0.0040)	0.0097* (0.0040)	0.0059 (0.0042)	0.0027 (0.0045)	0.0031 (0.0045)
DR-DiD: covariates + d_{pre}	0.0051 (0.0093)	0.0144* (0.0067)	0.0139** (0.0048)	0.0092* (0.0037)	0.0090* (0.0037)	0.0071* (0.0036)	0.0041 (0.0035)	0.0036 (0.0037)

Notes: Entries are ATTs for the 2018–2024 change in precinct yes-share. DR-DiD is the Sant’Anna and Zhao (2020) improved doubly robust estimator and applies DRDID’s 0.995 propensity-score trimming threshold. Specifications with d_{pre} include balancing based on pre-treatment levels of 2014 statewide homeless spending referenda support. Shelter-clustered standard errors are in parentheses. $\cdot p < 0.10$, $*p < 0.05$, $**p < 0.01$, $***p < 0.001$.

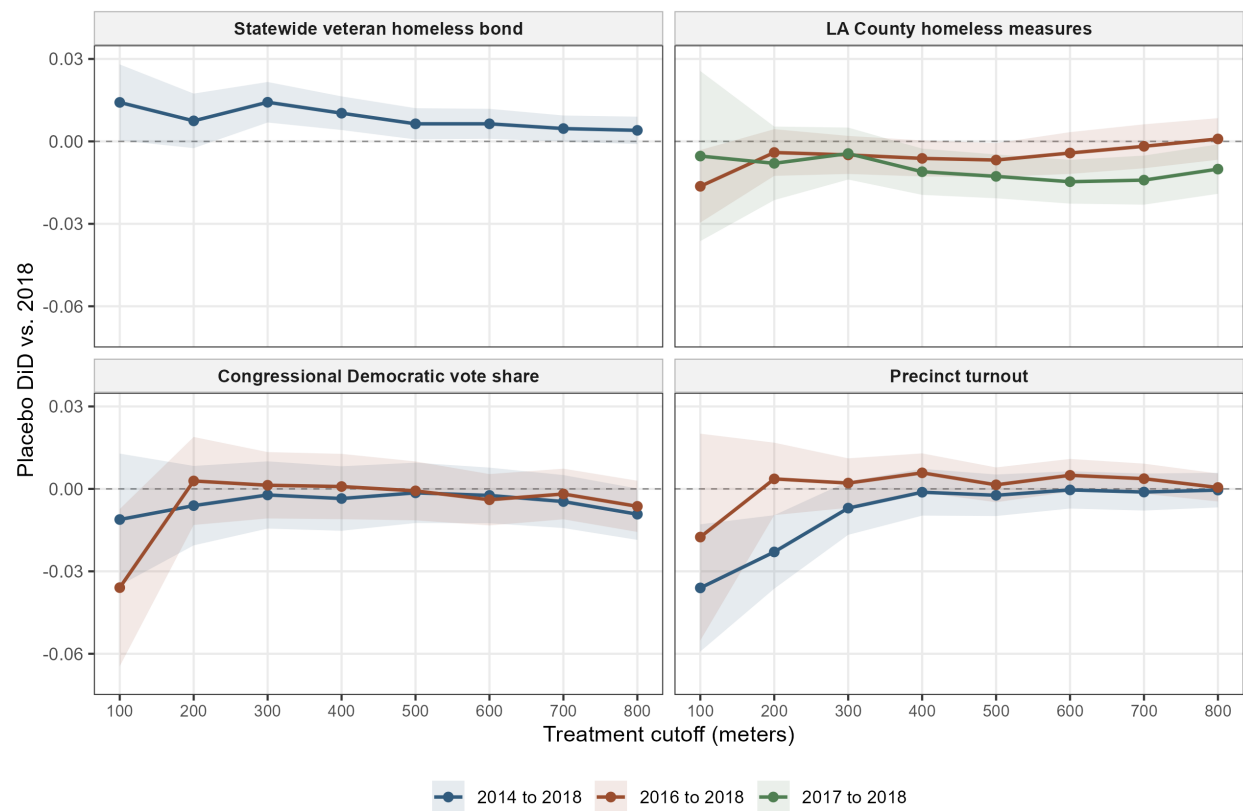


Figure A10: Naive difference-in-differences pre-period placebo estimates across treatment cutoffs. Each panel compares a pre-2018 outcome with its 2018 reference outcome. Shaded bands are 95% confidence intervals based on standard errors clustered by nearest shelter.

D.8 Time interacted baseline political controls

Parallel trends could also be violated if there are time varying shocks that differentially impact treated versus control precincts. In the context of our study, such shocks are more narrow in confounding potential because our design compares neighboring precincts that differ only slightly in proximity to new shelters. Still, to measure the robustness of our results to such shocks in Appendix Table A12, we demonstrate the consistency of the estimates to the inclusion of 2018 baseline political controls – precinct Congressional Democratic vote share and turnout rate – interacted with the year indicator, to control for differential time trends by baseline covariates. We also estimate specifications interacting ACS demographic controls with the time trend, and a full controls specification that include ACS and political controls together along with controls for pre-existing number of shelters prior to 2018. These controls account for time-varying shocks that might be differentially correlated with differences in baseline covariates across treatment and control precincts.

Table A12: Effect of new facilities with time-interacted baseline controls.

Controls $\times$ post	100m	200m	300m	400m	500m	600m	700m	800m
None	0.021** (0.008)	0.020*** (0.006)	0.013** (0.004)	0.010** (0.004)	0.009** (0.003)	0.006 (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,566	2,176	2,762	3,346	3,998	4,656	5,278	5,906
Political controls	0.026*** (0.008)	0.023*** (0.006)	0.016*** (0.004)	0.013*** (0.003)	0.013*** (0.003)	0.009** (0.003)	0.008* (0.003)	0.007* (0.003)
Observations	1,566	2,176	2,762	3,346	3,998	4,656	5,278	5,906
ACS controls	0.019* (0.008)	0.017** (0.006)	0.012** (0.004)	0.010** (0.004)	0.009** (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)
Observations	1,562	2,172	2,758	3,340	3,992	4,650	5,272	5,900
Full controls	0.010 (0.008)	0.013* (0.006)	0.009* (0.004)	0.008* (0.003)	0.008* (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,562	2,172	2,758	3,340	3,992	4,650	5,272	5,900
Precinct fixed effects	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Shelter-clustered SE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Comparison band	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m

Notes: * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$, **** $p < .001$.

D.9 Spatially Varying Confounders

Similarly, we estimate in Appendix Table A13 alternative specifications that account for unobserved spatial confounders: time-varying shocks that differ across places within California and differentially impact areas closest to shelters. Our results are robust to inclusion of latitude-by-time and longitude-by-time trends, as well as county, ZIP Code, Census place, and major city specific time trends. We do observe moderately attenuated estimates in these more restrictive geography-specific time trend specifications, but the results in the 200 and 300 meter group, where we observe the most prominent effects in the main estimation, are consistently positive and significant across specifications.

Table A13: Robustness to spatially varying unobserved confounders.

Specification	100m	200m	300m	400m	500m	600m	700m	800m
Main	0.021** (0.008)	0.020*** (0.006)	0.013** (0.004)	0.010** (0.004)	0.009** (0.003)	0.006 (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,566	2,176	2,762	3,346	3,998	4,656	5,278	5,906
Latitude/longitude $\times$ trend	0.011 (0.007)	0.014** (0.006)	0.009* (0.004)	0.007* (0.003)	0.008* (0.003)	0.006 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,566	2,176	2,762	3,346	3,998	4,656	5,278	5,906
County-specific trend	0.010 (0.007)	0.013* (0.005)	0.008* (0.004)	0.006 (0.003)	0.007* (0.003)	0.006* (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,566	2,176	2,762	3,346	3,998	4,656	5,278	5,906
ZCTA $\times$ post FE	0.005 (0.009)	0.013* (0.007)	0.011* (0.004)	0.010* (0.004)	0.008* (0.004)	0.005 (0.004)	0.004 (0.004)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,202	1,820	2,384	2,994	3,678	4,344	4,982	5,626
Major-city $\times$ post FE	0.008 (0.007)	0.013* (0.005)	0.008* (0.004)	0.007* (0.003)	0.008** (0.003)	0.006* (0.003)	0.006 (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)
Observations	1,566	2,176	2,762	3,346	3,998	4,656	5,278	5,906
Census place $\times$ post FE	0.011 (0.007)	0.017** (0.006)	0.009* (0.004)	0.010** (0.003)	0.009** (0.003)	0.006 (0.003)	0.005 (0.003)	0.004 (0.003)
Observations	1,416	2,028	2,588	3,168	3,824	4,486	5,120	5,762
Precinct fixed effects	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Shelter-clustered SE	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes
Comparison band	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m	350m

Notes: Coefficients report the effect on support for the 2024 homeless-services ballot measure relative to the 2018 baseline measure, on the 0–1 vote-share scale. Treatment is defined by whether the precinct centroid is within the listed cutoff of a new shelter; controls are the full geometric cutoff-to-cutoff-plus-350m ring; no additional multiple-shelter screen is applied. The latitude/longitude trend specification interacts mean-centered land-clipped precinct centroid coordinates with a linear year trend. ZCTA and Census place assignments come from spatial joins between precinct centroids and 2020 Census TIGER/Line cartographic boundaries. The selected major-city row allows separate post-period effects for Los Angeles, San Diego, San Jose, San Francisco, and all other precincts. With the two-period 2018/2024 vote panel, county-specific trends, ZCTA-by-post fixed effects, major-city-by-post fixed effects, and Census-place-by-post fixed effects should be read as different ways of absorbing spatially varying post-period shocks. Standard errors are in parentheses and clustered by nearest new shelter. $p < .10$, $*p < .05$, $**p < .01$, $***p < .001$.

D.10 Spillover robustness

Table A14: Spillover robustness and alternative donor pools

Specification	100m	200m	300m	400m	500m	600m	700m	800m
Main	0.0214** (0.0078)	0.0200*** (0.0056)	0.0130** (0.0042)	0.0101** (0.0035)	0.0091** (0.0033)	0.0058 (0.0031)	0.0045 (0.0030)	0.0045 (0.0029)
Shifted ring	0.0316*** (0.0077)	0.0219*** (0.0056)	0.0130** (0.0044)	0.0127*** (0.0037)	0.0080* (0.0033)	0.0041 (0.0031)	0.0031 (0.0029)	-0.0027 (0.0028)
Statewide IPW	0.0123 (0.0067)	0.0200*** (0.0039)	0.0112 (0.0058)	0.0102* (0.0051)	0.0072 (0.0046)	0.0043 (0.0041)	0.0013 (0.0029)	-0.0000 (0.0029)

Notes: Following the spatial-spillover logic in Butts (2026), the shifted-donut specification drops adjacent controls and instead uses precincts in $(c + 350, c + 700]$. The statewide IPW specification does not restrict the donor pool to an adjacent ring: it uses all California precincts outside c and applies normalized ATT odds weights based on baseline covariates. Shift ring standard errors clustered by shelter. Statewide-IPW standard errors are clustered by county. $\cdot p < 0.10$, $*p < 0.05$, $**p < 0.01$, $***p < 0.001$.

D.11 Standard errors

Table A15: IPW main effect under alternative standard errors

Cutoff	Prec.	Treated	Estimate	Shelter	County	Conley 5km	Conley 10km	HC1	Boot.
100m	781	58	0.0101	(0.0087)	(0.0061)	(0.0101)	(0.0108)	(0.0095)	(0.0084)
200m	1,086	218	0.0180	(0.0065)**	(0.0058)**	(0.0056)**	(0.0064)**	(0.0064)**	(0.0064)**
300m	1,378	403	0.0118	(0.0048)*	(0.0057)*	(0.0032)***	(0.0047)*	(0.0049)*	(0.0048)*
400m	1,669	636	0.0106	(0.0041)*	(0.0052)*	(0.0045)*	(0.0042)*	(0.0043)*	(0.0040)**
500m	1,995	932	0.0099	(0.0040)*	(0.0051)	(0.0049)*	(0.0048)*	(0.0039)*	(0.0038)**
600m	2,324	1,231	0.0063	(0.0039)	(0.0048)	(0.0051)	(0.0046)	(0.0040)	(0.0037)
700m	2,635	1,506	0.0042	(0.0038)	(0.0035)	(0.0038)	(0.0038)	(0.0038)	(0.0036)
800m	2,950	1,821	0.0047	(0.0036)	(0.0030)	(0.0041)	(0.0031)	(0.0036)	(0.0036)

Notes: The shelter, county, Conley, and HC1 columns are analytic and condition on the estimated weights; the bootstrap column is 999 shelter-cluster resamples with the propensity re-fit each draw. $\cdot p < 0.10$, $*p < 0.05$, $**p < 0.01$, $***p < 0.001$.

D.12 Logged distance specification

Table A16: Logged-distance first-difference estimates, 800m distance window

	None (1)	Baseline (2)	ACS 2018 (3)	Baseline + ACS (4)
Intercept	-0.0551** (0.0170)	-0.0491 (0.0253)	0.0873 (0.0918)	0.0517 (0.0920)
Log distance to nearest new shelter	-0.0119*** (0.0028)	-0.0131*** (0.0029)	-0.0123*** (0.0030)	-0.0104*** (0.0030)
2018 Democratic vote share		-0.0469** (0.0153)		-0.0304 (0.0168)
2018 turnout		0.0630*** (0.0161)		0.0600* (0.0280)
Pre-existing shelters		0.0033** (0.0012)		0.0042*** (0.0012)
% White			-0.0131 (0.0111)	-0.0250* (0.0121)
Log population density			0.0016 (0.0037)	0.0035 (0.0038)
Log population			-0.0095** (0.0031)	-0.0091** (0.0031)
Log median home value			-0.0273*** (0.0068)	-0.0269*** (0.0067)
Log median household income			0.0255** (0.0089)	0.0258** (0.0090)
% BA+			0.0384* (0.0161)	0.0127 (0.0194)
Homeownership rate			-0.0243 (0.0151)	-0.0289 (0.0155)
Observations	1,824	1,824	1,821	1,821
Nearest-shelter clusters	1,013	1,013	1,012	1,012
R^2	0.009	0.037	0.059	0.073

Notes: Outcome is $\text{share yes}_{2024} - \text{share yes}_{2018}$. The sample is restricted to precincts within the listed distance of a new shelter. $p < .10$, $*p < .05$, $**p < .01$, $***p < .001$.

Table A17: Logged-distance first-difference estimates, 1km distance window

	None (1)	Baseline (2)	ACS 2018 (3)	Baseline + ACS (4)
Intercept	-0.0716*** (0.0150)	-0.0713** (0.0220)	0.1130 (0.0771)	0.0875 (0.0767)
Log distance to nearest new shelter	-0.0090*** (0.0024)	-0.0103*** (0.0025)	-0.0092*** (0.0026)	-0.0074** (0.0027)
2018 Democratic vote share		-0.0387** (0.0128)		-0.0242 (0.0142)
2018 turnout		0.0622*** (0.0145)		0.0907*** (0.0259)
Pre-existing shelters		0.0032** (0.0011)		0.0041*** (0.0011)
% White			-0.0130 (0.0096)	-0.0275** (0.0103)
Log population density			0.0016 (0.0032)	0.0040 (0.0032)
Log population			-0.0091** (0.0033)	-0.0088** (0.0033)
Log median home value			-0.0260*** (0.0052)	-0.0269*** (0.0051)
Log median household income			0.0195* (0.0076)	0.0185* (0.0077)
% BA+			0.0410** (0.0136)	0.0059 (0.0164)
Homeownership rate			-0.0185 (0.0124)	-0.0259* (0.0127)
Observations	2,501	2,501	2,498	2,498
Nearest-shelter clusters	1,138	1,138	1,137	1,137
R^2	0.005	0.029	0.048	0.065

Notes: Outcome is $\text{share yes}_{2024} - \text{share yes}_{2018}$. The sample is restricted to precincts within the listed distance of a new shelter. $^{\cdot}p < .10$, $^*p < .05$, $^{**}p < .01$, $^{***}p < .001$.

Table A18: Logged-distance first-difference estimates, 1150m distance window

	None (1)	Baseline (2)	ACS 2018 (3)	Baseline + ACS (4)
Intercept	-0.0703*** (0.0137)	-0.0674** (0.0206)	0.0812 (0.0731)	0.0578 (0.0728)
Log distance to nearest new shelter	-0.0092*** (0.0021)	-0.0108*** (0.0023)	-0.0104*** (0.0024)	-0.0090*** (0.0024)
2018 Democratic vote share		-0.0360** (0.0122)		-0.0228 (0.0130)
2018 turnout		0.0572*** (0.0146)		0.0837*** (0.0245)
Pre-existing shelters		0.0030** (0.0010)		0.0039*** (0.0011)
% White			-0.0143 (0.0093)	-0.0282** (0.0099)
Log population density			0.0002 (0.0031)	0.0023 (0.0031)
Log population			-0.0074* (0.0031)	-0.0071* (0.0031)
Log median home value			-0.0260*** (0.0049)	-0.0267*** (0.0049)
Log median household income			0.0230** (0.0074)	0.0223** (0.0073)
% BA+			0.0360** (0.0129)	0.0040 (0.0155)
Homeownership rate			-0.0179 (0.0120)	-0.0255* (0.0122)
Observations	2,953	2,953	2,950	2,950
Nearest-shelter clusters	1,188	1,188	1,187	1,187
R^2	0.006	0.026	0.044	0.058

Notes: Outcome is $\text{share yes}_{2024} - \text{share yes}_{2018}$. The sample is restricted to precincts within the listed distance of a new shelter. $\cdot p < .10$, $*p < .05$, $**p < .01$, $***p < .001$.

D.13 Different Electorates

A potential concern with the interpretation of our estimates is that the March 2024 primary election and November 2018 general election we compare draw different electorates. If primary voters near shelters are systematically more pro-homeless than general election voters, independent of any shelter effect, this composition difference could inflate the measured treatment effect estimates.

Bias from such compositional imbalances occurs if 1) compositional differences in the electorate – in terms of consistent versus inconsistent voters across the 2018 general and 2024 primary – are imbalanced across treated and control precincts and 2) there are sufficiently large preference gaps between consistent and inconsistent voters. To test this, we measure compositional changes in treated and control precincts across the two elections, estimate differences in electorate churn, and conduct a sensitivity analysis diagnosing how much of our results could be explained by differences in these compositional shifts across treated and control precincts. Specifically, we use L2 voter data to partition the electorate in each precinct into voters who voted in both elections from the same precinct, who voted only in 2018, and same precinct-voters who voted only in 2024 – and further breaking these categories down for whether the voter was registered in the same precinct across elections versus whether their registration status changed across elections.

To assess whether changes in the composition of the 2018 general versus 2024 primary election could drive our results, we use individual-level voter data to measure how many voters in each precinct vote in both elections versus just one or other other, as well as how many move or disappear from voter data. With this information we then estimate whether treatment and control have different compositional rates. For compositional bias to occur, this first condition must be met and then it must also be the case that consistent versus inconsistent voters across the general and primary election must have sufficiently large gaps in their preferences for public spending on homeless shelters. We assess both these claims, the first directly with our L2 data and the second drawing on the the first’s estimates in a sensitivity analysis.²⁷

First, we draw on L2 voter data to define the proportion the electorate in each precinct

²⁷The residential-sorting and electorate-composition sensitivity analyses are overlapping, rather than independent, exercises – both incorporate information on voters who move across precincts and appear or disappear from L2 voter lists but make different assumptions about their referenda preferences – and therefore estimates from these analyses should not be added together.

that are the following categories:

1. Voters registered in 2018 and 2024 in the same precinct who vote in both elections.
2. Voters registered in 2018 and 2024 in the same precinct who vote in 2018 but did not vote in 2024.
3. Voters registered in 2018 and 2024 in the same precinct who vote in 2024 but did not vote in 2018.
4. Voters who are registered in the precinct in 2018 and voted in 2018 but were not observed in that precinct in 2024 due to moving or de-registration.
5. Voters who are registered in the precinct in 2024 and voted in 2024 but were not observed in that precinct in 2018 due to moving or becoming newly registered between elections.

With these categories, we define each group as a share of the electorate in 2018 and 2024. For categories 2-5, which represent different ways that the composition of the electorate changes, we then estimate our preferred IPW difference-in-differences specification at each distance cutoff, estimating whether treated versus control precincts have different levels in the share of each group of voters. Figure A11 shows the estimates.

With the estimates from Figure A11, we construct a sensitivity analysis under the substantive assumption that general election voters are more supporting of the referenda than primary voters, and therefore 2018 general-only voters are more supportive than voters who vote in both election or voters who vote only in the 2024 primary. We assume voters who vote only in the primary are similar supportive as voters who vote in both the 2018 and 2024 election (both are primary voters). We impose the same assumptions for stable-voter and nonpersistent turnover and report their separate and combined contributions. Figure A12 increases the assumed 2018-only support gap from zero to two treated-precinct standard deviations of baseline yes vote share, with one-half and one standard deviation as benchmarks. A positive value means composition inflates the observed effect, while a negative value means composition suppresses it. Shaded ribbons are analytical nearest-shelter-clustered 95% confidence intervals conditional on the assumed preference gap, fitted weights, baseline SD, and observed effect used for normalization.

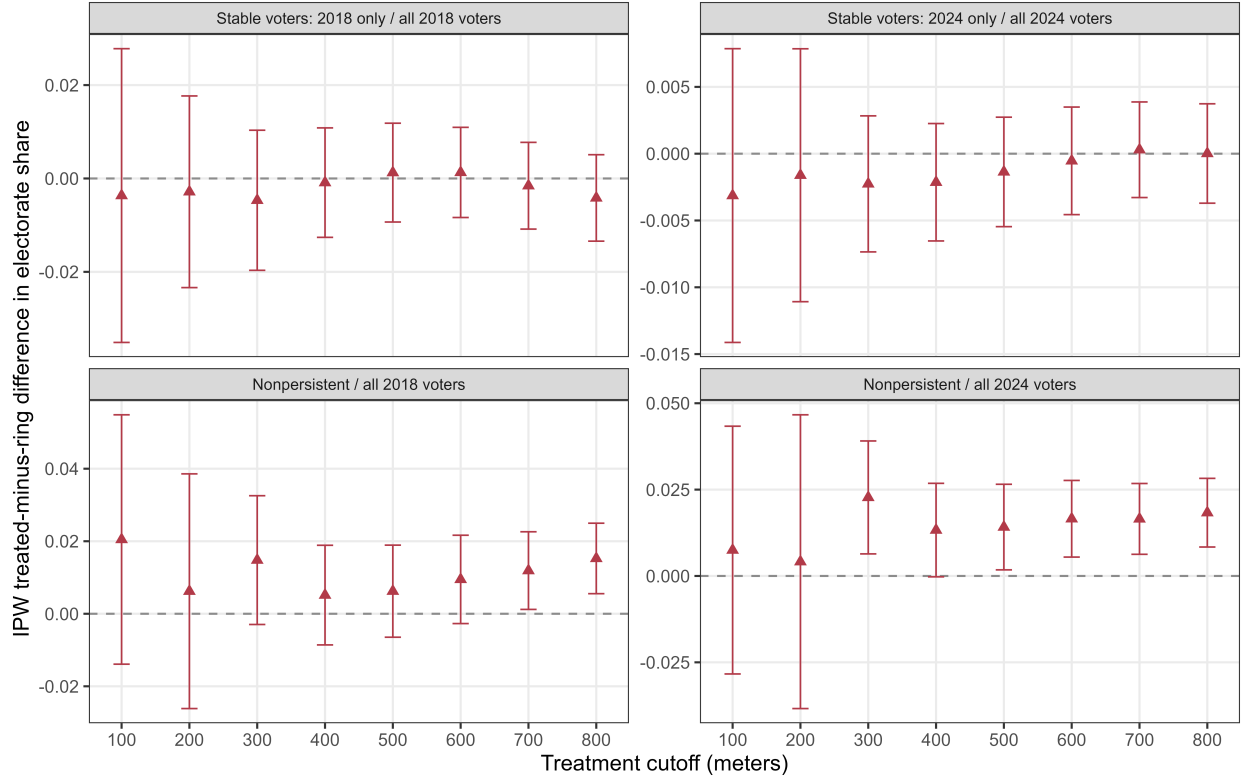


Figure A11: IPW estimated differences between treated and control precincts in stable-voter and nonpersistent electorate shares across treatment cutoffs. Bars are 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered by shelter. Top left panel shows estimates of the share of voters registered in same precinct in 2018 and 2024 but who voted only in 2018. Top right panel shows estimates of the share of voters registered in same precinct who voted only in 2024. Bottom left shows estimates of the share voters who were registered in that precinct and voted in 2018 but moved or de-registered by 2024. Bottom right shows estimates of the share of 2024 voters who were not in the precinct in 2018.

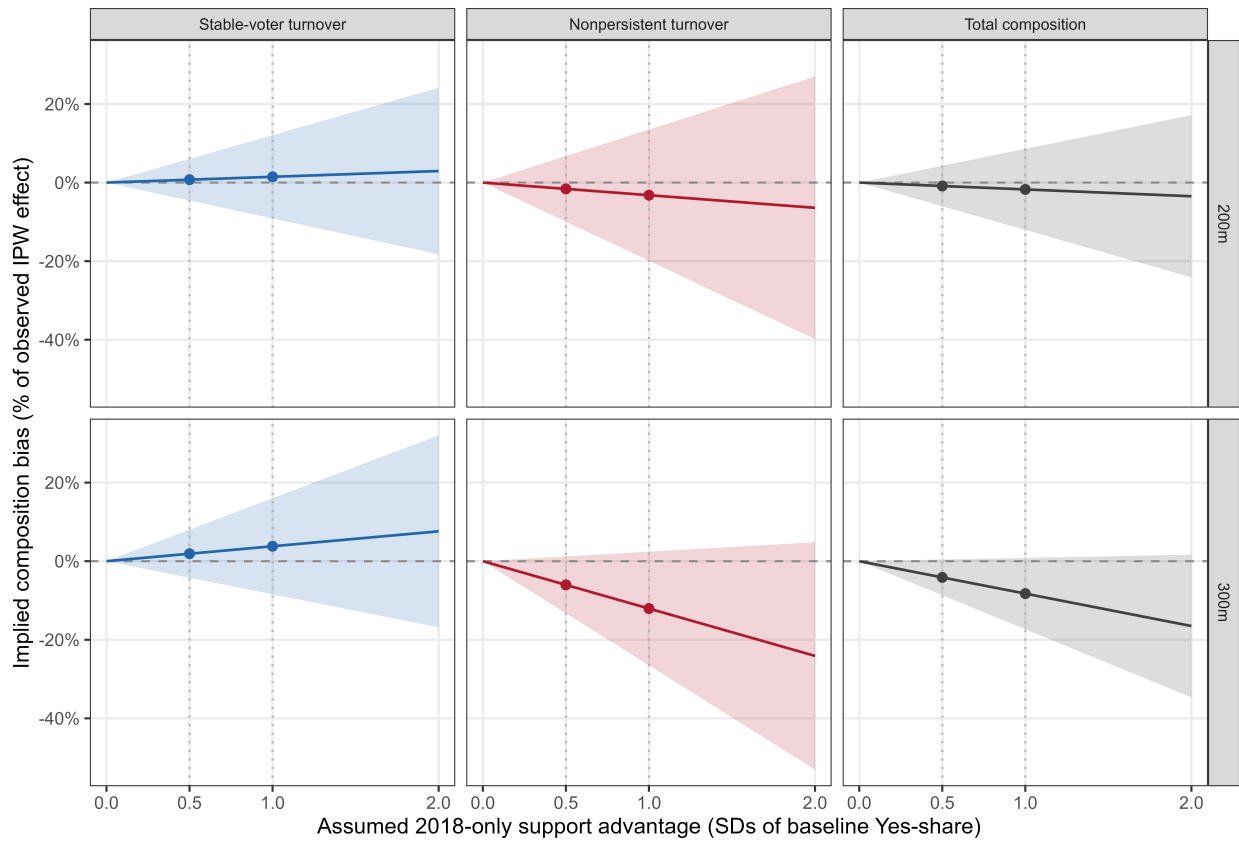


Figure A12: Implied electorate-composition bias across voter group preference gaps. Points mark the 0.5- and 1-SD benchmarks. Shaded ribbons are 95% confidence intervals.

We find that under these assumptions the sensitivity analysis reveals that compositional imbalances across treated and control precincts are more likely to *downward* bias our estimates than upward bias them. For the total composition sensitivity analysis (looking at both stable and non-persistent voters), we see that at 200 meters as the gap between general and primary voters widens our estimates would become slightly more downward biased. For 300 meters, the potential effects are more substantial – at the one-standard-deviation benchmark the total composition sensitivity analysis projects an approximately 8% (in terms of the IPW specification referenda effect size) downward bias. We only see an upward bias (however small) in the scenario where preference gaps exist only between stable voters. However, due to the lack of statistically significant estimates on most vote groups share, the sensitivity analyses themselves cannot reject a null of no bias.

This downward bias is due to the fact that treated precincts have slightly larger share of general election-only voters than weighted control precincts, particularly in the nonpersistent category. Under the assumption that primary voters are less supportive of the referenda than general election voters (a safe assumption given statewide differences across the 2018 and 2024 elections), the fact that we observe slightly lower shares of primary voters compared to general election only voters in treated precincts relative control precincts means that, if anything, compositional churn across election slightly downward biases our estimates (Figure A12).

D.14 Residential sorting

In this section we assess whether compositional differences in in- and out-migration are large enough to plausibly account for our vote share results. Our primary concern is that the observed effect on referendum support could partly reflect differences in who leaves, who stays, and who enters treated precincts, rather than persuasion among voters already in the electorate. For mobility to explain a substantial share of the result, two things must be true. First, treated precincts must exhibit meaningful differences in turnover-related composition relative to nearby controls. Second, those differences must be strongly correlated with propensity to vote yes or no on the referenda.

D.14.1 Differential migration between treated and control precincts

To assess this first condition, using our L2 linked voter sample, we calculate the number of “stayers” – voters present in the same precinct in the 2018 and 2024 elections, standardized to 2024 precincts as in our analysis data. Let L_i^{stayer} denote this number. We also calculate the total numbers of 2018 and 2024 registrants from the L2 data in each precinct, $R_{i,2018}^{\text{L2}}$ and $R_{i,2024}^{\text{L2}}$. From this we compute in-mover and out-mover shares for each precinct:

$$\text{In movers}_i = \frac{R_{i,2024}^{\text{L2}} - L_i^{\text{stayer}}}{R_{i,2018}^{\text{L2}}}, \quad \text{Out movers}_i = \frac{R_{i,2018}^{\text{L2}} - L_i^{\text{stayer}}}{R_{i,2018}^{\text{L2}}}.$$

At each distance cutoff, we then compare these turnover measures between treated precincts and nearby controls by estimating a cross sectional regression, with standard errors clustered at the shelter level. This regression mirrors our main specification in that it uses IPW adjustments for co-variates same as in our main specification.

Our quantity of interest is the difference in in-migration or out-migration share between treated and control precincts. Figure A13 presents β estimates across distance cutoffs. We do not find statistically significant effects on in or out migration, with positive estimates across distance cutoffs but not statistically distinguishable from zero, particularly at the closest cutoffs where our main effect on vote share is most apparent.

This analysis tells us that there are not major differences in turnover between treated and control precincts. Next, we compare 2018-2024 changes in turnover to 2014-2018 turnover

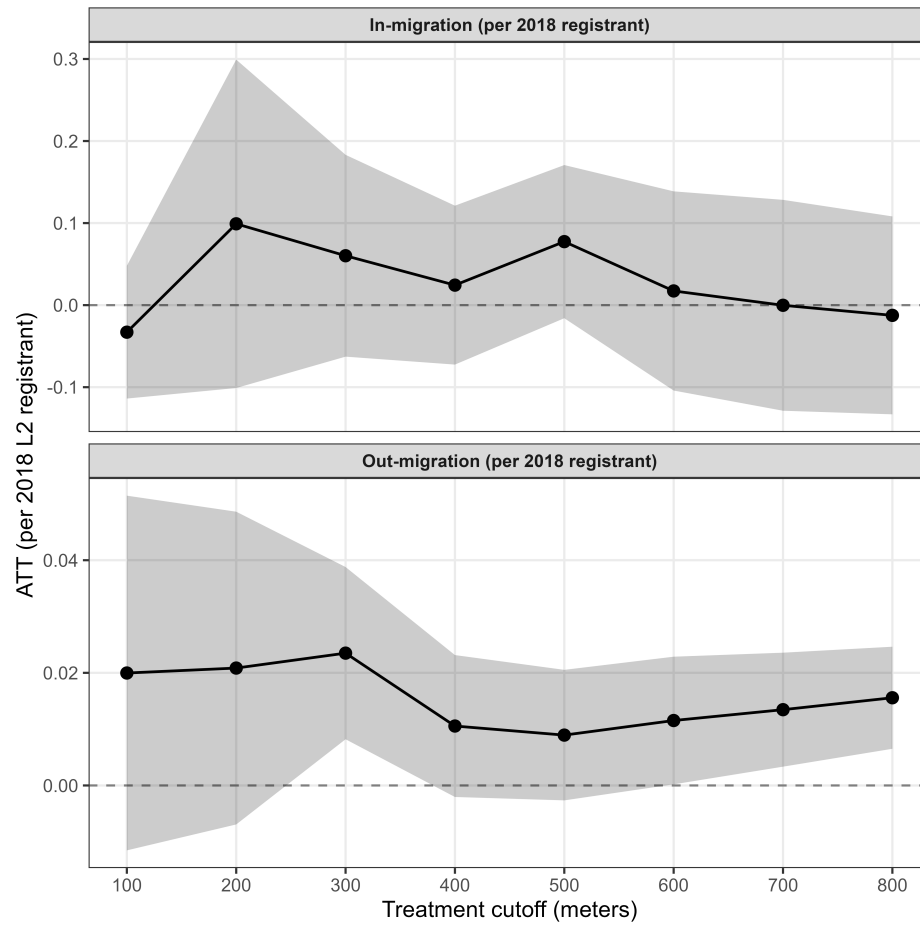


Figure A13: In- and out- migration differences between treated and control precincts, 2018-2024, using IPW specification.

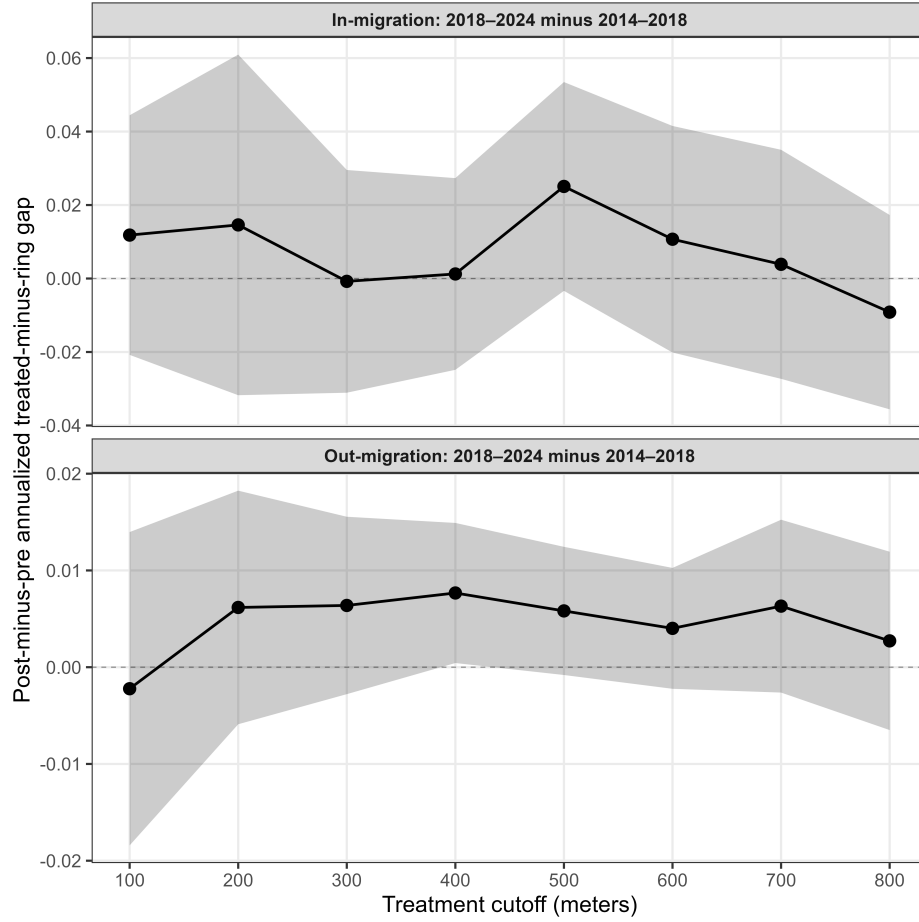


Figure A14: Change in precinct-level residential churn after new shelter openings, using IPW specification.

in the same precincts (adjusted to reflect differences in total number of years) in order to test whether new shelters induced larger or smaller turnover than in the past. This second estimation tests more directly whether a new shelter induced migration, which would be more worrisome if true because it would be more likely that observed differences. To test this, we re-estimate the IPW specification described above but specifically testing whether there is a greater change in annualized turnover from 2014–2018 compared to 2018–2024 in treated versus control precincts. Figure A14, reports these results, which show estimates not statistically distinguishable from zero across distance cutoffs.

D.14.2 Residential sorting sensitivity analysis

We estimate the contribution of mobility to the effect on referenda vote support under a selective-migration counterfactual. We partition voters in to stayers, leavers, and arrivers based on our L2 linked sample. Let $\delta_{\text{out}} = \pi^{\text{stayer}} - \pi^{\text{leaver}}$ and $\delta_{\text{in}} = \pi^{\text{arriver}} - \pi^{\text{stayer}}$ be the differences in referenda support between leavers and stayers and between arrivers and stayers. Let ρ_t^{stayer} be the share of stayers in the electorate in 2018 or 2024. Under the scenario of no within-stayer response to new shelters – where no stayer changes their mind about how or whether to vote – we define the vote share effect from migration as:

$$\widehat{\text{ATT}}^{\text{mig}}(S) = \delta_{\text{in}} \text{ATT}(1 - \rho_{2024}^{\text{stayer}}) + \delta_{\text{out}} \text{ATT}(1 - \rho_{2018}^{\text{stayer}}).$$

We then interpret $\widehat{\text{ATT}}(S) - \widehat{\text{ATT}}^{\text{mig}}(S)$ as the residual explained by the effect on political behavior. We set $\delta_{\text{in}} = 0$, assuming that stayers and arrivers are equally tolerant of new shelters. We then consider benchmark values of δ_{out} , the extent to which leavers are less supportive of new shelters. We benchmark the range of realistic gaps between leaver and stayer support for the referenda as the half standard deviation and standard deviation across treated precincts. For 200 meters the standard deviation is 9.5 percentage points, and for 300 meters it is 9.7 percentage points. We consider gaps outside of these ranges to be unlikely given the data, but we do compute sensitivity under extreme scenarios.

Figure A15 shows the results from this sensitivity analysis for treatment cutoffs at 200 and 300 meters. At 200 meters, we bound the share of vote share effects explained by mobility to be realistically somewhere between 4.7% and 9.3%. At 300 meters this range is 9.3%-18.6%. Therefore, small pluralities of our effects may be driven by compositional changes in the electorate due to in and out migration, but the large majority of our effect is likely a political behavior response to new shelters opening. In order for the entirety of our effect to be explained by mobility, the gap between leaver and stayer support for the referendum at 300 meters would have to exceed 51.8 percentage points, and at 200 meters no possible gap could account for the effect, as the required difference exceeds 100 percentage points.

We also compute an extension to this sensitivity analysis where we allow in-movers to

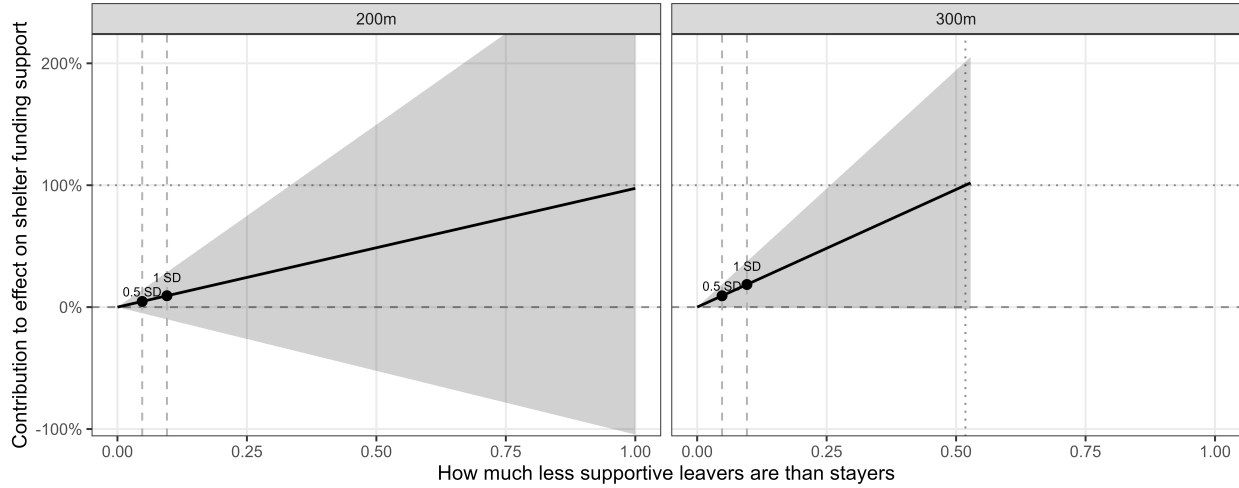


Figure A15: Mobility sensitivity analysis – leavers versus stayers preference gaps

have a stronger baseline of support for shelters in addition to the gap between leavers and stayers. We again benchmark these preferences using 0.5 and 1 standard deviation of the distribution of 2018 yes vote share across treated precincts. Figure A16 reports these results. In this sensitivity analysis, at reasonable benchmarks mobility could explain as much as 8.9%-17.7% of our results at 200 meters, and 21.6%-43.1% at 300 meters.

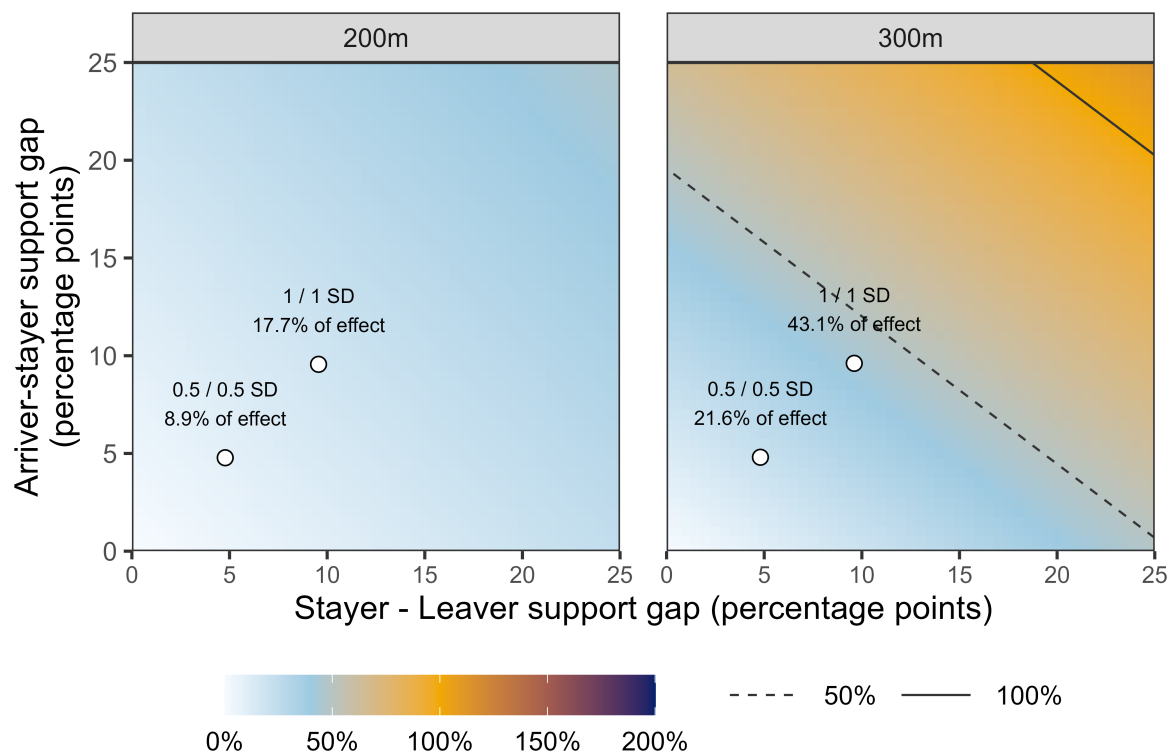


Figure A16: Mobility sensitivity analysis – leavers and in-mover preference gaps. Y-axis shows how much more supportive arrivers are of the referenda than stayers, x-axis shows how much more supportive stayers are than leavers. Color gradient signifies how much of vote share effect could be explained by mobility at intersection of x and y axis values.

E Additional Analyses

E.1 Individual-Level Voter Turnout

We also estimate the effect of new shelter proximity on individual voter turnout using the L2 voter file. This analysis restricts to voters observed at the same address in both the 2018 and 2024 elections and replaces precinct fixed effects with individual voter fixed effects. Figure A17 reports the distance-gradient estimates. The turnout response is concentrated at the closest cutoff: voters within 100 meters of a new shelter are more likely to turn out, while the estimates attenuate toward zero and become slightly negative at wider cutoffs.

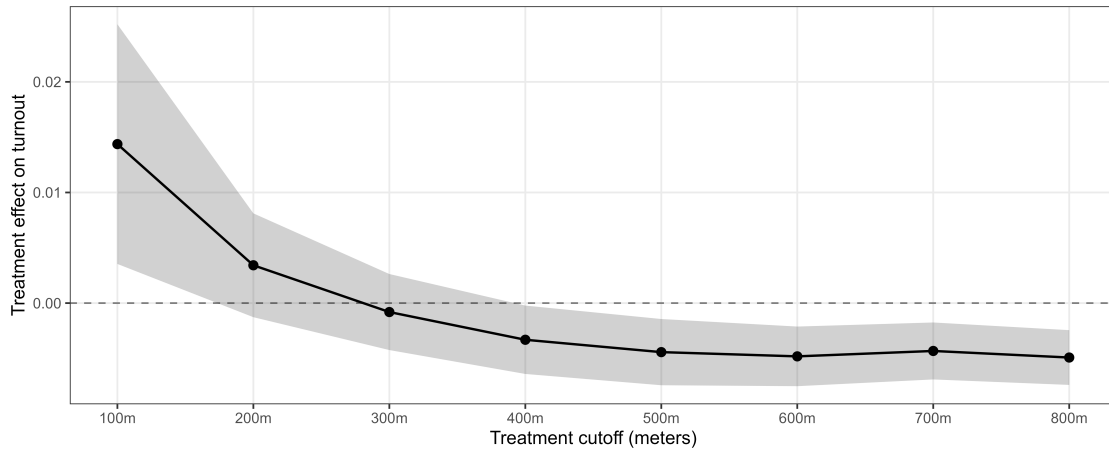


Figure A17: Effect of new shelter proximity on individual voter turnout. Points report difference-in-differences estimates from individual voter fixed-effects models, estimated across treatment distance cutoffs from 100m to 800m. Treatment is defined by whether a voter lives within the listed cutoff of a new shelter; controls are voters in the cutoff-to-cutoff-plus-350m band. Shaded bands are 95% confidence intervals with standard errors clustered by nearest shelter.

E.2 U.S. House incumbent vote-share

Table A19: Proximity to new shelters and U.S. House incumbent vote share

Cutoff	Treated	Control	Same-candidate share	Incumbent-party share
100m	47	627	-0.009 (0.019)	-0.011 (0.018)
200m	173	779	-0.036* (0.015)	-0.012 (0.012)
300m	324	903	-0.016 (0.011)	-0.001 (0.009)
400m	527	955	-0.009 (0.009)	0.015 (0.008)
500m	810	948	-0.003 (0.008)	0.014 (0.008)
600m	1,093	964	-0.007 (0.007)	0.011 (0.007)
700m	1,347	983	-0.013 (0.009)	0.017* (0.007)
800m	1,625	979	-0.014 (0.008)	0.009 (0.006)

Notes: Each column reports a coefficient from the IPW specification estimating effect of new shelter on incumbent U.S. House vote share. Standard errors clustered by nearest eligible shelter appear in parentheses. $p < .10$, $*p < .05$, $**p < .01$, $***p < .001$.

E.3 Effect heterogeneity by housing tenure

Table A20: Covariate-IPW estimates of shelter proximity on the 2018–2024 change in Yes-share, by ACS 2018 homeownership tercile.

Treatment cutoff	Renter (lowest tercile)	Mixed (middle tercile)	Homeowner (highest tercile)
100 m	0.010 (0.009) [52/584]	-0.023 (0.030) [5/115]	– [1/24]
200 m	0.024*** (0.007) [185/677]	-0.025 (0.020) [26/148]	– [7/43]
300 m	0.014* (0.005) [332/725]	0.008 (0.011) [58/182]	– [13/68]
400 m	0.013** (0.005) [527/717]	0.004 (0.009) [91/224]	-0.010 (0.025) [18/92]
500 m	0.012* (0.004) [756/688]	0.012 (0.008) [141/269]	-0.003 (0.017) [35/106]
600 m	0.009* (0.004) [961/680]	0.006 (0.007) [205/301]	0.012 (0.015) [65/112]
700 m	0.006 (0.004) [1138/691]	0.010 (0.007) [274/327]	0.021 (0.016) [94/111]
800 m	0.005 (0.004) [1338/663]	0.012 (0.006) [355/336]	0.001 (0.016) [128/130]

Estimates are subgroup-specific IPW coefficients for the 2018–2024 change in referendum Yes-share. Standard errors (in parentheses) are clustered by nearest shelter Terciles are cut on the ACS 5-year homeownership rate ending in 2018. * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$.

E.4 Effect heterogeneity by 2018 baseline referendum support

Table A21: IPW estimates of shelter proximity on the 2018–2024 change in Yes-share, by tercile of initial 2018 support

Treatment cutoff	Low support (lowest tercile)	Middle support (middle tercile)	High support (highest tercile)
100 m	–	–	0.009 (0.009) [1/38]
200 m	0.008 (0.023) [9/45]	0.032 (0.020) [3/109]	0.017** (0.007) [54/576]
300 m	-0.007 (0.030) [13/65]	0.028** (0.014) [49/202]	0.011** (0.005) [341/709]
400 m	0.013 (0.018) [32/73]	0.019* (0.010) [83/237]	0.008* (0.005) [521/723]
500 m	0.017 (0.015) [47/85]	0.011 (0.009) [136/283]	0.009** (0.005) [749/695]
600 m	0.003 (0.013) [64/98]	0.003 (0.009) [217/301]	0.010** (0.004) [950/694]
700 m	-0.003 (0.019) [90/97]	0.005 (0.009) [277/338]	0.008** (0.004) [1,139/694]
800 m	-0.017 (0.026) [118/103]	0.005 (0.008) [365/351]	0.008** (0.004) [1,338/675]

Estimates are IPW specification coefficients measuring effect on 2018–2024 change in referendum yes-share. Standard errors (in parentheses) are clustered by nearest shelter and condition on the estimated weights.

* $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

E.5 Effect heterogeneity by Facility Population Type

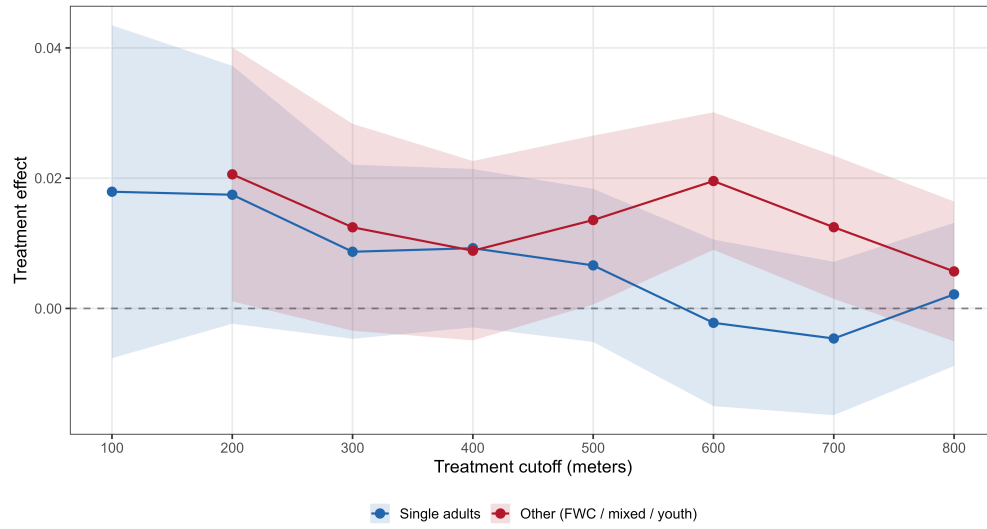
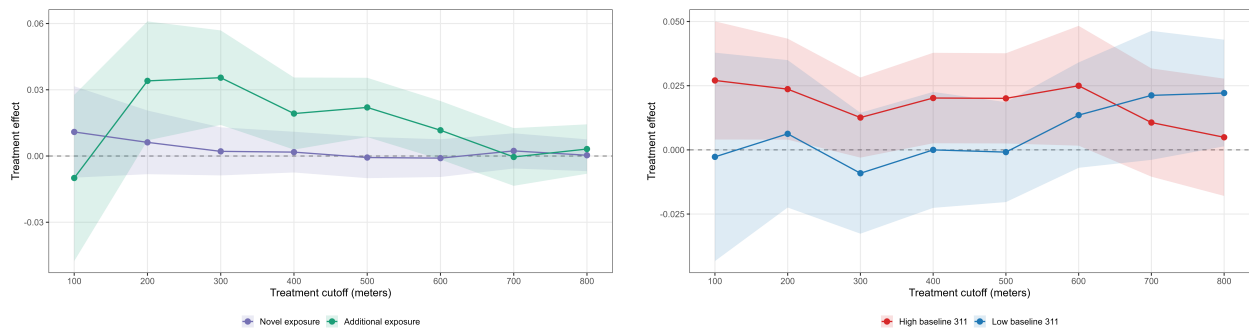


Figure A18: Heterogeneous effects by shelter population type

E.6 Effect heterogeneity by Preexisting Exposure to Homelessness



(a) Preexisting Shelters

(b) Preexisting 311 Calls

Figure A19: Effect of New Facility by Preexisting Exposure to Homelessness

E.7 Survey results

E.7.1 Replication Using Individual-Level Survey Responses

We conduct a conceptual replication of our main design using individual-level survey data. We take advantage of three Public Policy Institute of California (PPIC) polls of Californians, two fielded just before the March 2024 post-treatment homeless ballot proposition and one fielded in October 2025 (combined $N = 4,995$). To assign treatment to each respondent, we use a coarser geography, the ZIP Code. We consider a respondent to be treated if their ZIP Code received a new homeless services facility between 2018 and 2024, and control otherwise. As this is less precise than our difference-in-differences design, we attempt to mitigate the selection concerns that motivated our econometric approach through a series of controls on individual-level observables.²⁸ Critically, we run all models with fixed effects at the county level to absorb geographic variation, and we control for the number of homeless beds in the pretreatment period at the ZIP Code level so that the treatment captures the net effect of new or expanded homeless facilities.²⁹

We evaluate if the treatment replicates on support for Prop 1, our post-treatment outcome. Respondents were asked if they would vote yes or no if the election was held today. Figure A20 plots these effects. Those in treated ZIP Codes expressed support for the measure about 4 percentage points (6 percent) higher than control ZIP Codes. We find similar effects for two of the other four homelessness policies asked about: “establishing addiction treatment centers in your local area” (5 p.p.) and “building developments of tiny or small homes” to “help homeless people” (3 p.p.). We find null effects on all other non-homeless housing and welfare policies, along with attitudes about national policies and foreign affairs, which we treat as placebo tests. This reassures us that our treatment is isolating the effects of new homeless facilities and not capturing preexisting differences in unobservable characteristics that predict more liberal policy tendencies. In addition to bolstering our main findings using an alternative dataset, we will use these survey data to disentangle possible mechanisms.

²⁸These are: homeownership, partisanship, race, length of residency, gender, age, self-reported likelihood of voting, and voter registration status.

²⁹This specification unsurprisingly produces imbalance across some observables, namely homeownership, race, and age. While we control on these observables, we also provide alternative specifications in Appendix E.7, such as one which defines the control ZIP Codes as those which had pre-treatment shelters. Results are substantively similar.

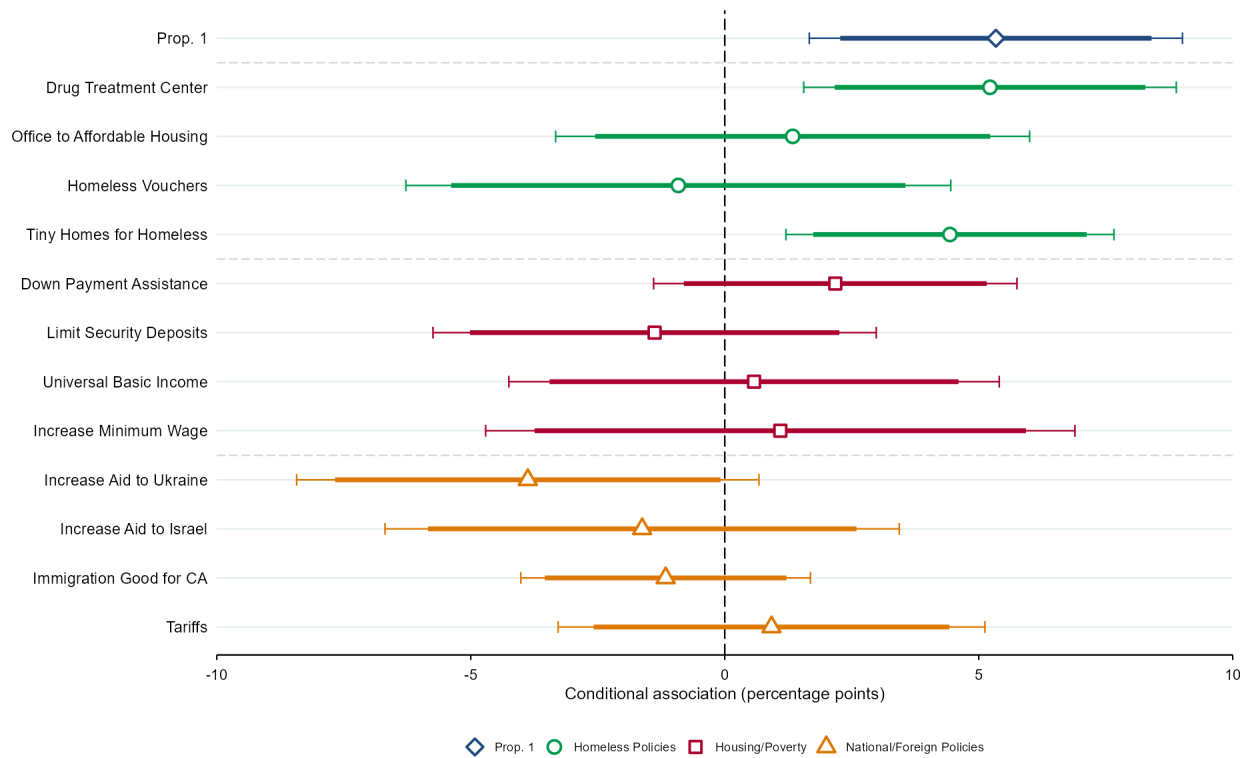


Figure A20: Exposure to New Facilities Predicts Support for Spending on Homeless Service Facilities in Individual-Level Public Opinion Data: plot shows the effect of ZIP Code-level proximity to new facilities on a number of policies. Proposition 1, the 2024 CA ballot measure funding homeless services is shown in blue. Other homeless policies are shown in green. Housing and economic redistribution policies are shown in red. Unrelated (placebo) policies are shown in orange. Points indicate point estimates of regression controlling for homeownership, race, age, income, length of residence, vote likelihood, ideology, education, gender, and ZIP Code-level pre-2018 homeless beds, as well as survey wave and county fixed effects. Standard errors are clustered at ZIP Code and county levels. Error bars indicate 90 and 95% confidence intervals.

E.7.2 Additional survey results

Appendix Table A22 presents a regression where self-reported exposure to homeless people (seeing a homeless person at least weekly) is the independent variable and various attitudes are the dependent variables. Column 1 is concern about the presence of homeless people, column 2 is belief in the cause being mental health services, column 3 is belief in the cause being substance abuse, column 4 is belief in the cause being lack of affordable housing, column 5 is belief in the cause being loss of income, column 6 is considering homelessness to be a big problem, and column 7 is ranking homelessness as the top issue facing the state. These results mirror that of Lee et al. (2004), with the notable exception that self-reported exposure also increases attribution to substance abuse as a cause of homelessness. All models include controls for observable demographics.

Table A22: Within-County Association Between Observing Homelessness and Attitudes

Variables	Very concerned about homelessness	Cause: inadequate mental-health services	Cause: drug/alcohol addiction	Cause: lack of affordable housing	Cause: loss of income	Homelessness is a big problem	Homelessness is a top state issue
See Homeless Weekly	0.261*** (0.0212)	0.153*** (0.0387)	0.165*** (0.0365)	0.0978** (0.0377)	0.110** (0.0389)	0.300*** (0.0369)	0.0341* (0.0153)
Observations	3,162	1,550	1,551	1,550	1,551	1,553	3,164
R-squared	0.116	0.0744	0.0661	0.115	0.0855	0.159	0.0537

Notes: Unweighted models include county fixed effects and controls for homeownership, race, age, income, length of residence, likelihood to vote, ideology, education, gender, baseline homeless beds, and survey wave. HC1 heteroskedasticity-robust standard errors are in parentheses. Significance: . $p < 0.10$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$. The top-state-issue outcome includes homelessness or poverty/the poor in December 2023 and homelessness only in October 2025.

Appendix Table A23 presents a regression where voting for Prop 1 is the dependent variable. Attributing structural causes increases support for the Proposition, while attributing substance has a negative effect, but is statistically insignificant (the coefficient is also null when it is the sole predictor, results available upon request). Concern about the presence of homeless people in one's community has inconsistent effects depending on if the ZIP Code is in the treatment or in the control. Ranking homelessness as the top issue produces positive effects. Finally, thinking that homelessness is a big problem and self-reported exposure to homelessness do not directly predict the outcome. We note, however, that self-reported exposure predicts all of the other attitudes, which is consistent with exposure operating as a mediator.

Table A23: Association Between Homelessness Attitudes and Proposition 1 Vote by Treatment Group

Variables	Full Sample	Control Zips	Treated Zips
Concern Presence	-0.0444 (0.0244)	-0.0628* (0.0307)	-0.0118 (0.0380)
See Homeless Weekly	-0.00919 (0.0308)	-0.0180 (0.0359)	-0.0227 (0.0521)
Cause: Mental Services	0.206*** (0.0295)	0.229*** (0.0576)	0.178*** (0.0408)
Cause: Drugs	-0.0375 (0.0267)	-0.0503 (0.0408)	-0.0489 (0.0422)
Cause: Affordable Housing	0.147*** (0.0256)	0.0735 (0.0553)	0.210*** (0.0539)
Cause: Loss of Income	0.0921* (0.0448)	0.134*** (0.0231)	0.0560 (0.0770)
Homeless Top Issue	0.0926* (0.0374)	0.106* (0.0425)	0.0827* (0.0367)
Homelessness Big Problem	0.00669 (0.0310)	0.0115 (0.0341)	0.00589 (0.0553)
Constant	0.504*** (0.0624)	0.462*** (0.0961)	0.600*** (0.0952)
Observations	1,317	623	686
R-squared	0.278	0.326	0.281

. p<0.10, * p<0.05, ** p<0.01, *** p<0.001

Note: December 2023 survey. Treated ZIP Codes contain at least one address site from the 1,579 new facilities. OLS models include county fixed effects, and standard errors are clustered by county and ZIP Code. Models include the eight displayed attitudes plus controls for homeownership, race, age, income, length of residence, likelihood to vote, ideology, education, gender, baseline homeless beds, and survey wave.

E.8 311, 911, tent, and police stop analysis at alternative distance cutoff

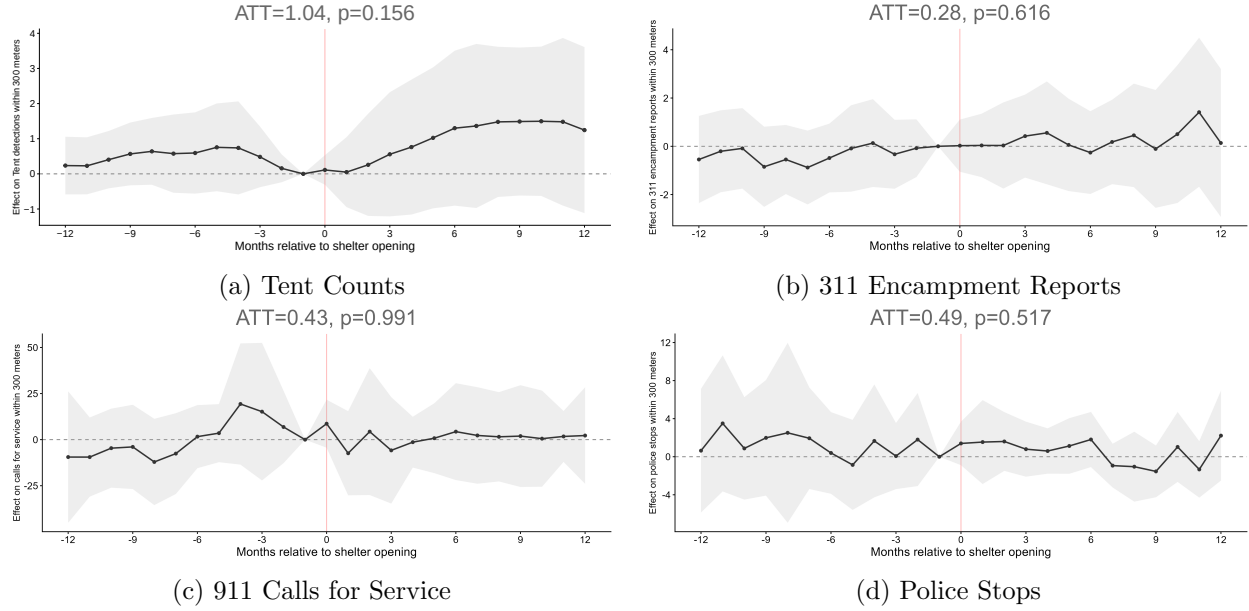


Figure A21: **New shelter openings do not reduce neighborhood disorder and crime – 300 meter distance cutoff** plot shows Callaway & Sant’Anna (2021) dynamic treatment effects of 2018-2024 facility openings on counts of outcomes within 300m. The vertical line marks the facility opening date. Shaded areas represent 95% confidence intervals. Panel (a) shows effects on visible tent encampments in San Francisco; panel (b) shows effects on 311 reports of encampments in Los Angeles, San Francisco, San Diego, Oakland, San Jose, Pasadena, and Sacramento; panel (c) shows effects on all 911 calls for service in San Francisco, San Jose, and Sacramento; panel (d) shows effects on all police stops in San Francisco, San Diego, Oakland, and Long Beach.